TAMIL NADU AGRICULTURAL UNIVERSITY

Coimbatore

AEX 101
COMMUNICATION SKILLS

Lecture-wise Theory Study Material

B.Sc. (Hons) Agriculture

First Year • First Semester

Based on the 2025 Syllabus

Sixteen lectures in syllabus order, with diagrams, tables, worked examples and exam-focus sections.

Prepared as exam-oriented revision material

How to Use This Material

This booklet follows the AEX 101 Communication Skills syllabus of the B.Sc. (Hons) Agriculture programme, First Year First Semester, exactly as prescribed. There is one chapter for each of the sixteen lectures, in the same order as the syllabus.

Every chapter opens with the syllabus topic, explains each sub-topic under headed sections, and uses plain English with bullet points for quick revision. Where a concept is best shown as a picture, a labelled diagram is given. Where facts must be compared, a table is given. Where a skill must be practised, a worked example is given.

Each chapter ends with an **Exam Focus** section containing key points, three short-answer questions with model answers, and two long-answer questions with answer outlines. The worked examples are drawn from Indian and agricultural situations — farm advisory letters, extension meetings, demonstrations and writing for farmers.

Suggested way to use the booklet

- Read the chapter once for understanding, paying attention to the definitions and the tables.
- Study the diagram carefully and be able to reproduce and label it in the examination.
- Work through the worked example with a pen and paper before looking at the answer.
- Use the Exam Focus section for last-minute revision and self-testing.
- Revise the glossary at the end for one-line definitions of technical terms.

The Sixteen Lectures at a Glance

No.	Lecture title
1	The Magic of Effective Communication
2	Building Self-Esteem and Overcoming Fears
3	Techniques for Overcoming Fears
4	Communication Process
5	Communication Types
6	Models of Communication
7	Barriers to Communication and Communication Gap
8	Listening and Speaking
9	Reading Skills
10	Writing Skills
11	Precis Writing and Styles of Technical Communication
12	Writing a Resume and a Curriculum Vitae
13	Innovative Methods to Enhance Vocabulary
14	Analogy Questions and Elements of Effective Writing
15	Phrases, Clauses and Correct Usage
16	Agreement of Verb with Subject and Effective Sentences

Table of Contents

How to Use This Material 2

Suggested way to use the booklet . . . 2

The Sixteen Lectures at a Glance . . . 2

The Magic of Effective Communication 7

Learning Outcomes . . . 7

1.1 What is Communication? . . . 7

1.2 Principles of Communication . . . 7

1.3 Functions of Communication . . . 8

1.4 Concepts Related to Communication . . . 9

1.5 The Seven C's of Effective Communication . . . 10

Key Terms . . . 11

Building Self-Esteem and Overcoming Fears 13

Learning Outcomes . . . 13

2.1 Understanding Confidence and Fear . . . 13

2.2 Strategies to Build Self-Esteem and Overcome Fears . . . 13

2.3 Techniques for Building Confidence . . . 14

2.4 Non-Verbal Signs of Confidence . . . 15

Key Terms . . . 15

Techniques for Overcoming Fears 18

Learning Outcomes . . . 18

3.1 Focus on Preparation . . . 18

3.2 Gradual Exposure to Different Communication Situations . . . 18

3.3 Consistent Practice . . . 19

3.4 Rehearse Out Loud . . . 19

3.5 Relaxation Techniques before Speaking . . . 20

Key Terms . . . 20

Communication Process 22

Learning Outcomes . . . 22

4.1 Meaning and Concept . . . 22

4.2 Nature of the Communication Process . . . 22

4.3 Significance of the Communication Process . . . 23

4.4 Elements of the Communication Process . . . 23

4.5 Feedback: Types and Importance . . . 25
Key Terms . . . 25

Communication Types **27**

Learning Outcomes . . . 27
5.1 Verbal Communication . . . 27
5.2 Non-Verbal Communication . . . 28
5.3 Functions of Non-Verbal Communication . . . 31
Key Terms . . . 31

Models of Communication **33**

Learning Outcomes . . . 33
6.1 Linear Models . . . 33
6.2 Interactive Models . . . 35
6.3 Transactional Model . . . 36
6.4 Uses and Limitations of Communication Models . . . 37
Key Terms . . . 37

Barriers to Communication and Communication Gap **40**

Learning Outcomes . . . 40
7.1 Linguistic Barriers . . . 40
7.2 Non-Linguistic Barriers . . . 41
7.3 Communication Gap . . . 41
7.4 Miscommunication . . . 42
7.5 Overcoming Barriers and Bridging the Communication Gap . . . 43
Key Terms . . . 44

Listening and Speaking **46**

Learning Outcomes . . . 46
8.1 Listening — Definition and Meaning . . . 46
8.2 Hearing versus Listening . . . 46
8.3 Stages of the Listening Process . . . 46
8.4 Types of Listening . . . 47
8.5 Speaking Skills . . . 48
8.6 Types of Speaking . . . 48
8.7 Barriers to Effective Listening . . . 48
8.8 How to Improve Listening . . . 49
Key Terms . . . 49

Reading Skills 51

Learning Outcomes . . . 51
9.1 Types of Reading . . . 51
9.2 Comprehension and Reading Comprehension . . . 52
9.3 Readability Index . . . 53
9.4 Guidelines for Effective Reading . . . 53
9.5 The SQ3R Method of Reading . . . 53
Key Terms . . . 54

Writing Skills 56

Learning Outcomes . . . 56
10.1 Graham's Flow Chart of the Writing Process . . . 56
10.2 Types of Writing . . . 57
10.3 Writing Skills for Easy Reading . . . 57
10.4 Points to be Considered in Technical Writing . . . 58
10.5 Paragraph Writing . . . 58
10.6 The Seven C's Applied to Writing . . . 59
Key Terms . . . 59

Precis Writing and Styles of Technical Communication 61

Learning Outcomes . . . 61
11.1 What is Precis Writing? . . . 61
11.2 Rules for Making a Precis . . . 61
11.3 Guidelines for a Good Precis . . . 61
11.4 Abstracting and Summarising . . . 62
11.5 Styles of Technical Communication . . . 62
11.6 Precis, Summary, Abstract and Synopsis Compared . . . 63
Key Terms . . . 64

Writing a Resume and a Curriculum Vitae 66

Learning Outcomes . . . 66
12.1 Tips for Writing a Resume . . . 66
12.2 Tips for Writing a Curriculum Vitae . . . 66
12.3 The Covering Letter . . . 68
Key Terms . . . 69

Innovative Methods to Enhance Vocabulary 71

Learning Outcomes . . . 71

13.1 Reading Extensively . . . 71
13.2 Playing Word Games . . . 71
13.3 Listening to Podcasts and Audio . . . 71
13.4 Use of Mnemonics . . . 72
13.5 Practice Using New Words . . . 72
13.6 Word Formation: Prefixes, Suffixes and Roots . . . 73
Key Terms . . . 73

Analogy Questions and Elements of Effective Writing 75

Learning Outcomes . . . 75
14.1 What is an Analogy? . . . 75
14.2 Elements of Effective Writing . . . 76
14.3 Punctuation for Clear Writing . . . 77
Key Terms . . . 77

Phrases, Clauses and Correct Usage 79

Learning Outcomes . . . 79
15.1 Phrases . . . 79
15.2 Clauses . . . 79
15.3 Case . . . 79
15.4 Correct Usage of Parts of Speech . . . 80
15.5 Common Errors in the Use of Prepositions and Conjunctions . . . 81
Key Terms . . . 81

Agreement of Verb with Subject and Effective Sentences 83

Learning Outcomes . . . 83
16.1 Agreement of Verb with Subject . . . 83
16.2 Tense . . . 83
16.3 Mood . . . 83
16.4 Voice . . . 84
16.5 Writing Effective Sentences . . . 84
16.6 Basic Sentence Faults to be Avoided while Writing for Farmers . . . 84
16.7 Writing a Farm Advisory Letter: A Model . . . 86
Key Terms . . . 86

Glossary of Key Terms 88

Reference List 90

LECTURE 1
LECTURE 1

The Magic of Effective Communication

Learning Outcomes

- Explain what communication is and why it is central to agricultural extension.
- State the principles that govern all communication.
- Describe the four functions of communication with agricultural examples.
- Define fidelity, noise, empathy, homophily, heterophily, propaganda, publicity and persuasion.

1.1 What is Communication?

Communication is the process of exchanging information, ideas, opinions, feelings and attitudes between two or more persons through a common system of symbols. The word is derived from the Latin word *communis*, which means ‘common’. To communicate, therefore, is to make something common — to share meaning so that the sender and the receiver end up with the same understanding.

Definition

Communication is the transmission and reception of information, ideas, opinions or emotions by means of spoken words, written words, or signs and symbols, in such a way that the meaning is shared and understood by both the parties. In short, it is the creation of shared meaning.

In agricultural extension, communication is the bridge between the scientist who generates a technology and the farmer who is expected to adopt it. A high-yielding paddy variety, a recommended dose of fertiliser, or an integrated pest management practice stays inside a research station unless it is communicated clearly and convincingly to the farmer. Effective communication is thus the ‘magic’ that converts scientific knowledge into farm-level practice.

1.2 Principles of Communication

The following principles summarise the essential nature of all communication, whether it is a farmer talking to a fellow farmer, an extension officer delivering a radio talk, or a scientist writing a research bulletin.

- **Communication is a two-way process.** The sender and the receiver both participate. One-way transmission alone is not complete communication.
- **It is a continuous and dynamic process.** Communication never stands still; meanings, participants and situations keep changing.
- **It is a social process.** Communication takes place between people and is shaped by the society and culture in which they live.
- **Meaning is in people, not in words.** The same word may mean different things to different people. Meaning is created in the mind of the receiver.
- **Communication is inevitable.** Even silence, a frown or folded arms carry a message. One cannot *not* communicate.
- **It is purposeful and goal-directed.** Every act of communication has an intention — to inform, to instruct, to persuade or to integrate.

- **It needs a common frame of reference.** Sender and receiver must share language, experience and background for meaning to be transferred.
- **Feedback is essential.** Without feedback the sender cannot know whether the message was received and understood.
- **It is contextual.** The meaning of a message depends on the time, place, occasion and relationship of the persons involved.

1.3 Functions of Communication

Communication performs four broad functions. These functions are closely linked and in practice operate together, but they are studied separately because each serves a distinct purpose.

1.3.1 Information function

This is the most basic function. Communication is used to give and receive information, facts, figures and knowledge. An extension officer informing farmers about the onset of the monsoon, a market price bulletin, or a weather advisory all serve the information function. The purpose is to reduce uncertainty and to help the receiver take informed decisions.

1.3.2 Command and instructive function

Communication is used to give instructions, orders, directions and guidance so that a task is carried out correctly. When a subject-matter specialist tells farmers the exact steps of seed treatment — treat the seed with a recommended fungicide at a specified dose, dry it in the shade, and sow within 24 hours — the message is instructive. The command function influences behaviour by telling the receiver *what to do and how to do it*.

1.3.3 Influence or persuasive function

Here communication is used to change attitudes, beliefs or opinions so that people adopt a desired behaviour. Persuasion does not force; it convinces. When an extension worker persuades farmers to shift from broadcasting to line sowing of paddy, or to adopt a new variety, the influence function is at work. It aims at voluntary change of behaviour.

1.3.4 Integrative function

Communication binds individuals and groups together into a working whole. It builds cooperation, teamwork and unity. In a village, a farmers' club, a milk cooperative or a joint liability group holds together because members communicate, discuss and take decisions collectively. The integrative function maintains social relationships and organisational solidarity.

Table 1.1 Functions of Communication

Function	Purpose	Agricultural example
Information	To give and receive facts, knowledge and news; to reduce uncertainty	Weather advisory; market price bulletin; new variety release notice
Command and instructive	To direct, instruct and guide so that a task is done correctly	Step-by-step seed treatment; package of practices for a crop; spray schedule
Influence or persuasive	To change attitudes, beliefs and behaviour voluntarily	Persuading farmers to adopt line sowing, drip irrigation or a new variety
Integrative	To build cooperation, teamwork and social unity	Farmers' club meeting; milk cooperative; joint decision on common grazing land

1.4 Concepts Related to Communication

Several technical terms are used to describe how well communication works and how messages influence people. These concepts are frequently asked in examinations.

1.4.1 Fidelity

Fidelity is the degree of accuracy with which a message is transferred from the source to the receiver. High fidelity means the message received is exactly the same as the message sent; low fidelity means the message has been distorted. Fidelity is reduced by noise, language difficulty, poor listening and lack of a common frame of reference. An extension recommendation of ‘two kilograms per acre’ that reaches the farmer as ‘two kilograms per hectare’ is an example of low fidelity.

1.4.2 Noise

Noise is any factor that interferes with or distorts the message and reduces fidelity. Noise may be physical (loud machinery, a poor telephone line, a noisy meeting), physiological (hearing difficulty, fatigue), psychological (prejudice, lack of interest, fear), or semantic (unfamiliar words, technical jargon). In a village meeting held next to a tractor workshop, physical noise alone may destroy the message.

1.4.3 Empathy

Empathy is the ability to put oneself in the place of another person and to understand that person’s feelings, needs and point of view. An empathetic extension worker imagines the farmer’s situation — the risk of crop failure, the burden of debt, the scarcity of labour — before making a recommendation. Empathy is different from sympathy: sympathy is feeling *for* a person, empathy is understanding *with* a person.

1.4.4 Homophily

Homophily is the degree to which two communicating persons are similar in beliefs, values, education, social status and background. Communication is generally easier and more effective between homophilous persons. A farmer explaining a new practice to a fellow farmer of the same village is highly homophilous, and hence the message is accepted more readily.

1.4.5 Heterophily

Heterophily is the opposite of homophily — the degree to which two persons differ in beliefs, values, education and social status. A university scientist talking to an illiterate farmer is highly heterophilous. Heterophily creates a communication gap and often needs a bridge such as a local leader or a trained village-level worker.

1.4.6 Propaganda

Propaganda is a deliberate, systematic and organised effort to influence the beliefs, attitudes and actions of a large number of people, usually by presenting only one side of the case and often by appealing to emotion rather than reason. It is one-sided and may distort or suppress facts. During wartime, governments use propaganda to build public support.

1.4.7 Publicity

Publicity is the act of attracting public attention to a person, product, idea or organisation through the mass media, without directly paying for the message as in advertising. A newspaper report on an extension officer’s demonstration plot, or a radio feature on a successful farmer, is publicity. Publicity aims at creating awareness and a favourable image.

1.4.8 Persuasion

Persuasion is the process of influencing a person's attitudes or behaviour through reasoning, argument and appeal, so that the change comes from within and is voluntary. Persuasion uses logic (evidence, demonstrations, trial results) as well as emotion. It differs from propaganda in that persuasion is usually two-sided and open, whereas propaganda is one-sided and manipulative.

Table 1.2 Key concepts at a glance

Concept	One-line meaning	Points to remember
Fidelity	Accuracy with which a message is transferred	High fidelity = faithful message; reduced by noise
Noise	Any interference that distorts the message	Physical, physiological, psychological, semantic
Empathy	Understanding another's feelings and point of view	Feeling *with* a person; not the same as sympathy
Homophily	Similarity between sender and receiver	Similarity makes communication easy
Heterophily	Difference between sender and receiver	Difference creates a communication gap
Propaganda	One-sided, organised effort to influence many people	Emotional appeal; may distort facts
Publicity	Attracting public attention through the media	Not paid for like advertising; builds image
Persuasion	Voluntary change of attitude through reason and appeal	Two-sided and open; uses logic and emotion

Worked Example 1.1 Identifying concepts in a field situation

A block-level extension officer holds a *kisan goshti* (farmers' meeting) to promote zero tillage in wheat. Half the farmers are smallholders who know the officer well; the rest are new migrants with different farming practices. A diesel generator runs nearby during the meeting, and the officer uses the word 'conservation agriculture' without explaining it. One farmer later tells his neighbour that the officer asked them to sow 'without any tillage at all', which is not what was said.

- **Noise:** the diesel generator (physical) and the unexplained term 'conservation agriculture' (semantic).
- **Homophily:** the officer and the long-settled smallholders share background and trust.
- **Heterophily:** the officer and the new migrant farmers differ in practice and experience.
- **Low fidelity:** 'minimum tillage' became 'no tillage at all' as the message passed on.
- **Function involved:** mainly the influence or persuasive function, supported by the information function.

1.5 The Seven C's of Effective Communication

Good communication, whether spoken or written, is described by seven qualities that begin with the letter C. They are a useful checklist for any extension message.

- **Completeness:** the message contains all the information the receiver needs — dose, time and method, not just the name of the practice.
- **Conciseness:** the message is brief and free of unnecessary words.

- **Consideration:** the message is prepared with the receiver's needs, education and situation in mind.
- **Clarity:** the message is unambiguous; one idea is expressed at a time.
- **Concreteness:** the message uses specific facts and figures rather than vague statements.
- **Courtesy:** the message is polite, respectful and considerate in tone.
- **Correctness:** the message is accurate in facts, language, grammar and spelling.

In extension work the seven C's are applied together. A recommendation that is complete and correct but not clear will still fail, and a clear message that is not courteous may be rejected by the farmer.

Key Terms

Key terms and their meanings

Term	Meaning
Communication	The sharing of information and meaning through a common system of symbols.
Fidelity	The accuracy with which a message is transferred from sender to receiver.
Noise	Any interference that distorts a message and reduces its fidelity.
Empathy	Understanding another person's feelings and point of view.
Homophily / Heterophily	Similarity / difference between two communicating persons.
Propaganda	One-sided, organised effort to influence the beliefs of many people.
Persuasion	Voluntary change of attitude through reasoning and appeal.

Exam Focus — Lecture 1

Key points to remember

- Communication comes from Latin *communis* = common; it is the sharing of meaning.
- Four functions: information, command and instructive, influence or persuasive, integrative.
- Fidelity = accuracy of transfer; noise reduces fidelity.
- Empathy = understanding *with*; sympathy = feeling *for*.
- Homophily = similarity; heterophily = difference between communicators.
- Propaganda is one-sided; persuasion is generally two-sided and voluntary.
- Publicity is unpaid media attention; advertising is paid.
- Communication is a two-way, continuous, social and purposeful process.

Short-answer questions with model answers

Q1. Define communication and state any two of its principles.

Answer: Communication is the process of exchanging information, ideas, feelings and attitudes between two or more persons through a common system of symbols, so that meaning is shared. Two principles: (i) it is a two-way process — both sender and receiver participate; (ii) feedback is essential — without it the sender cannot know whether the message was understood.

Q2. Distinguish between homophily and heterophily.

Answer: Homophily is the degree of similarity between two communicators in beliefs, values, education and social status; it makes communication easy. Heterophily is the degree of difference between them; it creates a communication gap and needs a bridge.

Q3. What is noise? Give two examples.

Answer: Noise is any factor that interferes with or distorts a message and reduces its fidelity. Examples: (i) loud noise of a tractor at a village meeting (physical noise); (ii) use of unexplained technical jargon such as ‘conservation agriculture’ (semantic noise).

Long-answer questions with answer outlines

Q1. Explain the four functions of communication with agricultural examples.

Outline: Define communication briefly. Function 1 — Information (give facts, reduce uncertainty; example: weather advisory). Function 2 — Command and instructive (direct and guide; example: step-by-step seed treatment). Function 3 — Influence or persuasive (change attitudes voluntarily; example: persuading farmers to adopt drip irrigation). Function 4 — Integrative (build cooperation and unity; example: farmers’ club). Conclude that the four functions usually work together.

Q2. Discuss the concepts of fidelity, empathy, propaganda and persuasion.

Outline: Fidelity — accuracy of message transfer, reduced by noise. Empathy — understanding another’s viewpoint; importance in extension. Propaganda — one-sided, organised, emotional influence of the masses. Persuasion — voluntary change through reason and appeal; generally two-sided. Compare propaganda and persuasion; give one agricultural example of each.

LECTURE 2

LECTURE 2

Building Self-Esteem and Overcoming Fears

Learning Outcomes

- Distinguish self-esteem from confidence.
- Recognise the signs and causes of fear in communication.
- Describe strategies for building self-esteem.
- Explain the five techniques for building confidence.

2.1 Understanding Confidence and Fear

Self-esteem is the value and respect a person has for himself or herself. It is the individual's overall judgement of his or her own worth. Confidence is the belief in one's own ability to succeed at a task. Self-esteem is broader and more stable; confidence is more specific to a situation. A student may have healthy self-esteem but still feel nervous about speaking in public.

Self-esteem and confidence

Self-esteem is the overall opinion a person holds about his or her own worth. Confidence is the belief in one's ability to perform a particular task or handle a particular situation. High self-esteem nourishes confidence, and repeated successful performance in turn raises self-esteem.

Fear, in the context of communication, is the anxiety or nervousness felt before or during speaking, writing, reading aloud or interacting with others. The most common form is *glossophobia*, the fear of public speaking. Fear is not a sign of weakness; it is a normal human response that can be understood and managed.

2.1.1 Common signs of low self-esteem and fear

- Avoiding opportunities to speak, ask questions or give presentations.
- Physical symptoms: sweating, trembling hands, fast heartbeat, dry mouth, shaky voice.
- Negative self-talk such as 'I will make a fool of myself' or 'I am not good enough'.
- Comparing oneself unfavourably with others; excessive shyness.
- Rushing through a talk to 'get it over with'; poor eye contact; reading from notes.

2.1.2 Causes of fear in communication

- **Fear of judgement.** Worry about what others will think if a mistake is made.
- **Fear of failure.** The belief that any error will be a personal failure.
- **Lack of preparation.** Unfamiliarity with the topic or the audience.
- **Past bad experience.** A memory of being laughed at or criticised.
- **Unrealistic expectations.** Wanting to be perfect at the first attempt.
- **Lack of practice.** Little or no exposure to speaking situations.

2.2 Strategies to Build Self-Esteem and Overcome Fears

Building self-esteem is a gradual process. It is developed through small, repeated successes, positive relationships and conscious changes in thinking. The following strategies are widely recommended and are easy for a first-year student to practise.

- **Set small, achievable goals.** Speak for one minute in class this week; aim for three minutes next week. Small wins build belief.
- **Prepare thoroughly.** Knowledge of the subject is the strongest antidote to fear.
- **Practise regularly.** Rehearsing aloud in front of a mirror or a friend reduces anxiety.
- **Focus on the message, not on yourself.** Think about what the audience needs to know rather than how you look.
- **Accept imperfection.** Treat mistakes as information for improvement, not as evidence of failure.
- **Seek feedback and use it.** Ask a teacher or friend for one specific suggestion each time.
- **Celebrate progress.** Acknowledge improvement, however small.
- **Take care of physical and mental health.** Sleep, exercise and balanced food keep the mind steady.

2.3 Techniques for Building Confidence

Five practical techniques are commonly taught to students to build confidence. Each one attacks fear from a different direction.

2.3.1 Positive self-talk

Positive self-talk means replacing negative inner statements with supportive and realistic ones. Instead of thinking ‘I always spoil my presentation’, the student learns to think ‘I have prepared well; I can explain this clearly’. Self-talk shapes behaviour: what a person repeatedly tells himself tends to come true. A simple technique is to write three positive affirmations about one’s own ability and read them aloud each morning.

2.3.2 Practice self-care

Self-care means looking after one’s physical and emotional well-being. Adequate sleep, regular exercise, balanced food, and time for relaxation keep the body and mind fit. A tired, hungry or stressed person is far more likely to feel nervous. Deep breathing for a minute before speaking calms the heartbeat and steadies the voice.

2.3.3 Build positive relationships

Surrounding oneself with supportive people raises self-esteem. Friends and teachers who encourage rather than criticise help a student take risks. Joining a study group, a debating society or a farmers’ club gives safe opportunities to speak. Constructive feedback from trusted persons is a powerful confidence-builder.

2.3.4 Learn from mistakes

Mistakes are the most effective teachers. After a presentation, the student should note what went well and what needs improvement, and plan one specific change for next time. Treating a mistake as a lesson rather than as a verdict removes the fear of failing. Every good communicator has failed many times before succeeding.

2.3.5 Practice assertiveness

Assertiveness is the ability to express one’s thoughts, needs and feelings honestly and respectfully, without being aggressive and without being passive. An assertive student says ‘I would like to add one point’ rather than staying silent or shouting. Assertive behaviour builds confidence because it produces respect from others and self-respect within. It is developed by practising clear, calm, first-person statements.

Table 2.1 Confidence-building techniques and how they help

Technique	What it means	How it reduces fear
Positive self-talk	Replacing negative inner statements with supportive, realistic ones	Removes the mental habit of expecting failure
Practice self-care	Sleep, exercise, food, relaxation, deep breathing	Keeps the body calm so anxiety stays low
Build positive relationships	Spending time with supportive friends and mentors	Provides encouragement and safe practice
Learn from mistakes	Treating errors as feedback for improvement	Removes the fear of being judged for errors
Practice assertiveness	Expressing oneself honestly and respectfully	Builds self-respect and respect from others

Worked Example 2.1 A student prepares for a class seminar

Ravi, a first-year B.Sc. (Hons) Agriculture student, must give a five-minute seminar on ‘Integrated Nutrient Management’. He is nervous and has never spoken before a class.

- **Self-care:** he sleeps well the previous night and practises slow breathing before his turn.
- **Positive self-talk:** he replaces ‘I will forget everything’ with ‘I know this topic and I have practised it five times’.
- **Preparation:** he makes short notes on five cards and rehearses aloud twice before a friend.
- **Positive relationships:** his friend gives one suggestion — slow down and look up — which he accepts without feeling hurt.
- **Learning from mistakes:** he stumbles once, recovers, and notes afterwards that pausing briefly helped him regain the thread.
- **Assertiveness:** when a classmate interrupts, he says calmly, ‘I will take questions at the end’, and continues.

By the end, Ravi has not become fearless, but he has learned that fear can be managed with preparation and technique.

2.4 Non-Verbal Signs of Confidence

Confidence and fear are both visible in the body. A student can work on these outward signs deliberately, and improving them also improves the inner feeling.

- **Posture:** stand or sit upright and relaxed, with the shoulders back and the weight evenly balanced.
- **Eye contact:** look at the audience or the listener rather than at the floor or the notes.
- **Voice:** speak at a steady, moderate pace with enough volume to be heard easily.
- **Hands:** keep the hands relaxed and use them naturally to explain; avoid fidgeting.
- **Face:** allow a natural smile; a tense face communicates nervousness.
- **Appearance:** dress neatly and suitably for the occasion.

Practising these signs in front of a mirror or a camera makes them habitual, and habit reduces the effort needed to appear and feel confident.

Key Terms

Key terms and their meanings

Term	Meaning
Self-esteem	The overall opinion a person holds about his or her own worth.
Confidence	Belief in one’s ability to perform a particular task.
Glossophobia	The fear of public speaking.
Self-talk	The internal dialogue a person has with himself or herself.
Assertiveness	Expressing oneself honestly and respectfully, without aggression or passivity.

Exam Focus — Lecture 2

Key points to remember

- Self-esteem = overall opinion of one's own worth; confidence = belief in ability for a task.
- Glossophobia is the fear of public speaking; fear is normal and manageable.
- Main causes of fear: judgement, failure, poor preparation, past bad experience, perfectionism.
- Five confidence techniques: positive self-talk, self-care, positive relationships, learning from mistakes, assertiveness.
- Assertiveness lies between aggression and passivity.
- Deep breathing and thorough preparation are the quickest ways to control nervousness.

Short-answer questions with model answers

Q1. Define self-esteem and confidence.

Answer: Self-esteem is the overall opinion a person holds about his or her own worth. Confidence is the belief in one's ability to perform a particular task or handle a particular situation.

Q2. What is positive self-talk? How does it help?

Answer: Positive self-talk is the habit of replacing negative inner statements with supportive and realistic ones. It helps by removing the mental expectation of failure, keeping anxiety low and encouraging the person to attempt the task.

Q3. Define assertiveness and distinguish it from aggression.

Answer: Assertiveness is expressing one's thoughts and needs honestly and respectfully. Aggression is expressing them while disregarding or harming the feelings of others. Assertiveness earns respect; aggression damages relationships.

Long-answer questions with answer outlines

Q1. Explain any five techniques for building confidence.

Outline: Introduce confidence and its importance. Technique 1 — Positive self-talk (replace negative thoughts). Technique 2 — Practice self-care (sleep, exercise, breathing). Technique 3 — Build positive relationships (supportive friends). Technique 4 — Learn from mistakes (feedback, not failure). Technique 5 — Practice assertiveness (honest, respectful expression). Give a one-line example of each.

Q2. Discuss the causes of fear in communication and how they can be overcome.

Outline: Define fear and glossophobia. Causes: fear of judgement, fear of failure, lack of preparation, past bad experience, unrealistic expectations, lack of practice. Remedies: preparation, gradual exposure, practice, rehearsal aloud, relaxation techniques, feedback. Conclude that fear is manageable through practice.

LECTURE 3
LECTURE 3

Techniques for Overcoming Fears

Learning Outcomes

- Explain why preparation is the strongest remedy for fear.
- Describe gradual exposure and construct a ladder of speaking situations.
- Explain the value of consistent practice.
- Describe how to rehearse a talk out loud.

Lecture 2 explained how confidence is built in general. This lecture focuses on four specific techniques for overcoming the fear of communication: preparation, gradual exposure, consistent practice, and rehearsing out loud. These techniques work together and are most effective when used as a routine.

3.1 Focus on Preparation

The single most powerful remedy for fear is preparation. Most nervousness comes from uncertainty — uncertainty about the content, the audience or the situation. Preparation removes that uncertainty. A well-prepared speaker has the facts ready, knows the order of points, and has anticipated likely questions.

3.1.1 Steps in effective preparation

1. **Know the purpose.** Decide whether the talk is to inform, to instruct or to persuade.
2. **Know the audience.** Find out who will be present — farmers, students, officials — and pitch the language accordingly.
3. **Collect and organise content.** Gather facts, figures and examples, and arrange them in a clear sequence: opening, body, conclusion.
4. **Prepare aids.** Charts, posters, slides or specimens make the message vivid and reduce dependence on memory.
5. **Anticipate questions.** Think of three or four likely questions and prepare short answers.
6. **Plan the opening and the closing.** A confident start and a clear summary carry a talk.

3.1.2 Why preparation works

Preparation shifts attention from ‘how will I look’ to ‘what do I want to say’. It gives the speaker a mental map, so that even if a sentence goes wrong, the speaker knows where to return. Preparation also builds a reserve of confidence that can be drawn upon when unexpected questions arise.

3.2 Gradual Exposure to Different Communication Situations

Gradual exposure, also called systematic desensitisation, means facing feared situations step by step, starting from the easiest and slowly moving to the more difficult. Sudden exposure to a large audience can increase fear; a graded approach reduces it.

3.2.1 A graded ladder of speaking situations

1. Reading a prepared paragraph aloud to oneself.
2. Speaking to one familiar friend about a familiar topic.

3. Speaking to a small group of three or four classmates.
4. Asking one question in class.
5. Presenting a two-minute item to a study group.
6. Presenting a five-minute seminar to the whole class.
7. Speaking before a larger gathering, such as a farmers' meeting.

Each successful step weakens the fear attached to the next. The student should move up the ladder only when the present step feels comfortable. Repetition at each level is more important than speed.

3.3 Consistent Practice

Practice must be regular and consistent. A single rehearsal before a talk does little; daily or frequent practice builds fluency and calm. Consistency develops what psychologists call automaticity — the ability to perform a skill without conscious effort, which frees the mind to concentrate on the message.

- Fix a short daily practice time — even ten minutes helps.
- Practise a variety of tasks: reading aloud, summarising a news item, explaining a concept.
- Keep a simple record of what was practised and what improved.
- Practise in front of a mirror, then before a friend, then before a small group.
- Ask for one specific piece of feedback each week and work on it.

3.4 Rehearse Out Loud

Rehearsing out loud is different from reading silently or mentally repeating. When a person speaks the words aloud, the muscles of speech, the ear and the brain all participate, and the material is remembered far better. Speaking aloud also reveals problems that silent rehearsal hides — awkward sentences, difficult pronunciations and places where more explanation is needed.

3.4.1 How to rehearse out loud effectively

- Stand up and speak as if the audience were present; do not mumble while sitting.
- Time the talk with a clock so that it fits the allotted duration.
- Mark the pauses and the points where emphasis is needed.
- Rehearse the opening and the closing more often than the middle.
- Record the talk on a mobile phone and listen to it to spot weaknesses.
- Rehearse in the actual room or a similar room if possible, to reduce unfamiliarity.

Table 3.1 Four techniques for overcoming fear of communication

Technique	What the student does	Why it works
Preparation	Knows purpose, audience and content; prepares aids and likely questions	Removes uncertainty, the main source of fear
Gradual exposure	Moves from easy to difficult speaking situations step by step	Builds tolerance to fear without overwhelming the person
Consistent practice	Practises a little every day on varied tasks	Creates fluency and automaticity
Rehearse out loud	Speaks the words aloud, times the talk, records it	Uses speech and hearing together; reveals real problems

Worked Example 3.1 Applying the four techniques

Meena must speak on ‘Soil Health Card’ at a village meeting of about forty farmers. She is afraid of large gatherings.

- **Preparation:** she learns her audience is mostly small farmers; she collects three local examples and prepares a simple chart showing the meaning of a soil health card.
- **Gradual exposure:** a week earlier she first explains the topic to two classmates, then to her study group of six, before facing the village meeting.
- **Consistent practice:** she practises ten minutes daily for a week, changing the examples slightly each time.
- **Rehearse out loud:** she delivers the full talk aloud, times it to eight minutes, and records it; on listening she finds she speaks too fast in the middle and corrects this.

By the day of the meeting, Meena is still a little nervous but fully in control of her material.

3.5 Relaxation Techniques before Speaking

Even with preparation, a speaker may feel tense just before beginning. The following simple techniques calm the body quickly and can be practised in a few minutes.

1. **Deep breathing:** breathe in slowly to a count of four, hold for four, and breathe out to a count of four. Repeat five or six times.
2. **Muscle relaxation:** tighten and then relax the shoulders, hands and jaw in turn.
3. **Positive visualisation:** picture yourself speaking calmly and the audience responding well.
4. **Light physical movement:** a short walk or gentle stretching releases nervous energy.
5. **Sip of water:** it moistens a dry mouth and gives a moment to collect thoughts.
6. **Focus on the first sentence:** memorise the opening line so that the start is smooth.

Key Terms

Key terms and their meanings

Term	Meaning
Preparation	Knowing the purpose, audience and content before speaking.
Gradual exposure	Facing feared situations step by step, from easy to difficult.
Automaticity	Performing a skill fluently without conscious effort.
Out-loud rehearsal	Practising a talk by speaking it aloud, timing and recording it.

Exam Focus — Lecture 3

Key points to remember

- Preparation is the strongest single remedy for fear; it removes uncertainty.
- Steps in preparation: know purpose, know audience, organise content, prepare aids, anticipate questions.
- Gradual exposure (systematic desensitisation) means moving from easy to difficult situations.
- Consistent practice builds fluency and automaticity.
- Rehearsing out loud is better than silent rehearsal; it engages speech and hearing.
- A graded ladder of speaking situations is used to build tolerance step by step.

Short-answer questions with model answers

Q1. Why is preparation the best remedy for fear of speaking?

Answer: Fear arises mainly from uncertainty about content, audience and situation. Thorough preparation removes that uncertainty, gives the speaker a mental map, and shifts attention from self-consciousness to the message. It also builds a reserve of confidence for handling unexpected questions.

Q2. What is gradual exposure?

Answer: Gradual exposure, or systematic desensitisation, is the technique of facing feared communication situations step by step, beginning with the easiest and slowly moving to the more difficult, so that fear is reduced without overwhelming the person.

Q3. How does rehearsing out loud differ from silent rehearsal?

Answer: In out-loud rehearsal the muscles of speech, the ear and the brain work together, so the material is remembered better. It also reveals awkward sentences, pronunciation problems and timing issues that silent rehearsal hides.

Long-answer questions with answer outlines

Q1. Explain the four techniques for overcoming the fear of communication.

Outline: Preparation — steps and why it works. Gradual exposure — the ladder of speaking situations. Consistent practice — daily practice and automaticity. Rehearsing out loud — method and benefits. Conclude that the four techniques reinforce one another.

Q2. How would you prepare a farmer for a public talk on a new crop practice? Illustrate the steps.

Outline: Explain the situation. Steps: decide purpose (to instruct), study the audience (small farmers), collect content and local examples, prepare a chart, anticipate questions, plan the opening and closing. Then apply gradual exposure, daily practice and out-loud rehearsal. Conclude with the expected result.

LECTURE 4
LECTURE 4

Communication Process

Learning Outcomes

- Explain the meaning of the communication process.
- Describe the nature of the process — dynamic, social, reciprocal and interdependent.
- List and explain the elements of the communication process.
- Explain the importance of feedback in the process.

4.1 Meaning and Concept

The communication process is the sequence of steps through which a message passes from a sender to a receiver. It is not a single act but a chain of connected activities — the sender conceives an idea, puts it into words or symbols, sends it through a channel, and the receiver interprets it and responds. Understanding this process helps a communicator identify where a message may be lost or distorted.

Communication process

The communication process is the systematic sequence of encoding, transmission through a channel, and decoding of a message from a sender to a receiver, together with the feedback that returns from the receiver to the sender. It converts an idea in one mind into a shared idea in another mind.

4.2 Nature of the Communication Process

The communication process has four characteristic features that distinguish it from the mere sending of information.

4.2.1 Dynamic

The process is dynamic — it is always changing and moving. Meanings shift, the situation changes, and the participants continuously adjust their messages and responses. No two acts of communication are exactly alike, because the participants, their moods and the context keep changing.

4.2.2 Social

Communication is a social process because it always involves people in relationship with one another. It takes place within a society, is shaped by social norms and culture, and in turn shapes social relationships. Even a private letter or a diary entry is written by a social being for an imagined reader.

4.2.3 Reciprocal

The process is reciprocal — it is a give-and-take. The sender becomes the receiver and the receiver becomes the sender as the exchange continues. Both parties influence each other. A lecture in which students ask questions and the teacher responds is reciprocal; a one-way announcement over a loudspeaker is not.

4.2.4 Interdependent

The elements of the process are interdependent: the sender depends on the receiver, the message depends on the channel, and the meaning depends on the shared background. If any one element fails — an unclear message, a poor channel, an inattentive receiver — the whole process suffers. Each part works only in relation to the others.

4.3 Significance of the Communication Process

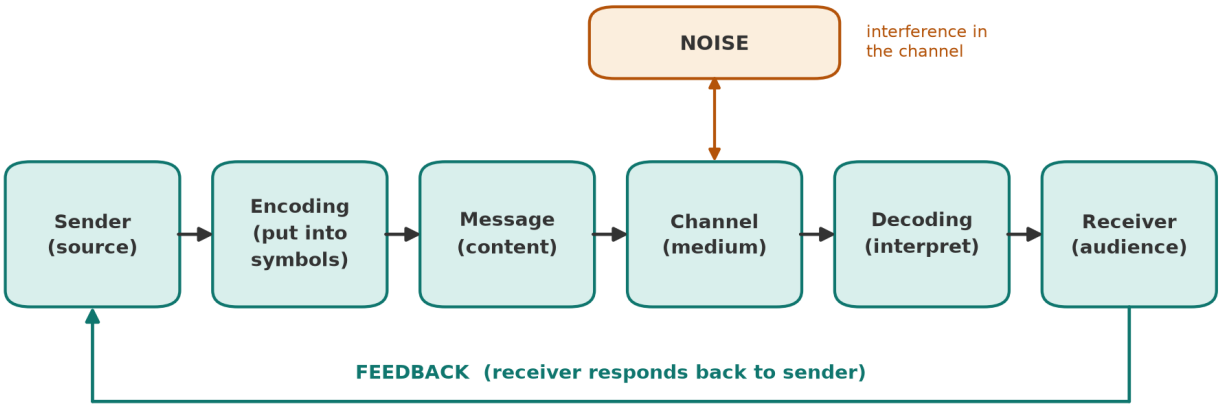
- It helps identify **where communication breaks down**, so that the fault can be corrected.
- It emphasises the importance of **feedback**, turning one-way transmission into two-way communication.
- It reminds the communicator to consider the **receiver's frame of reference** and reduce noise.
- It is the basis of all extension teaching methods — meetings, demonstrations, radio talks and printed material.
- It improves the **fidelity** of messages, so that recommendations reach farmers accurately.

4.4 Elements of the Communication Process

The communication process is made up of the following elements. Together they form a complete cycle.

- **Sender (source, communicator):** the person who initiates the message; the origin of the idea.
- **Encoding:** the process of converting the idea into words, symbols, pictures or gestures that can be transmitted.
- **Message:** the content — the information, idea or feeling — that is being sent.
- **Channel (medium):** the means by which the message travels — speech, print, radio, television, telephone, internet.
- **Noise:** any interference that distorts the message during transmission.
- **Receiver (audience):** the person or group for whom the message is intended.
- **Decoding:** the process by which the receiver interprets the symbols and gives them meaning.
- **Feedback:** the response of the receiver that returns to the sender, showing whether the message was understood.

Fig. 1 The Communication Process



The message travels left to right; noise may distort it; feedback makes communication a two-way, continuous process.

Fig. 1 The communication process — sender, encoding, message, channel, decoding, receiver, with noise acting on the channel and feedback returning to the sender.

4.4.1 Encoding and decoding

Encoding and decoding are mirror-image processes. Encoding is done by the sender when an idea is converted into symbols; decoding is done by the receiver when the symbols are converted back into meaning. If the sender and the receiver do not share the same code — for example, if the sender uses a technical term the receiver does not know — decoding fails and the message is misunderstood. This is why extension workers are advised to use the farmer's own vocabulary.

Table 4.1 Elements of the communication process and their functions

Element	Function in the process	Example (extension setting)
Sender	Initiates the message; owns the idea	Village extension officer
Encoding	Converts the idea into symbols	Puts the recommendation into simple local words and a chart
Message	Carries the content to be shared	'Use 50 kg DAP per acre at sowing'
Channel	Carries the message across distance	Face-to-face talk; poster; radio
Noise	Distorts the message in transit	Noise of machinery; unfamiliar term
Receiver	Receives and interprets the message	Farmer group at the meeting
Decoding	Gives meaning to the symbols	Farmer works out what 50 kg per acre means for his plot
Feedback	Returns the receiver's response to the sender	Farmer repeats the dose or asks a question

Worked Example 4.1 Tracing a message through the process

An extension officer wants farmers to adopt *seed treatment* before sowing.

- **Sender:** the extension officer.
- **Encoding:** the idea is put into words and a simple demonstration.
- **Message:** 'Treat the seed with the recommended fungicide before sowing.'
- **Channel:** a face-to-face demonstration at the village.
- **Noise:** the crowd is large and some farmers stand far away and cannot see clearly.
- **Receiver:** the farmers attending the demonstration.
- **Decoding:** each farmer interprets the instruction in the light of his own crop and plot.
- **Feedback:** a farmer asks how much fungicide is needed for half an acre; another says he will try it on a small plot first.

The feedback tells the officer that the message was understood but that the dose needs to be explained more clearly for small plots.

4.5 Feedback: Types and Importance

Feedback is the receiver's response to the sender's message. It is the element that turns transmission into communication, because it tells the sender whether the message was received as intended. Feedback can be classified in several ways.

- **Positive feedback:** the receiver approves or accepts the message, for example by adopting the practice.
- **Negative feedback:** the receiver rejects or questions the message, for example by asking for proof.
- **Immediate feedback:** given at once, as in a face-to-face meeting.
- **Delayed feedback:** given after a gap, as in a letter or a radio talk.
- **Verbal feedback:** expressed in words — a question or a comment.
- **Non-verbal feedback:** expressed through a nod, a smile, a frown or silence.

Feedback is important because it confirms understanding, allows the sender to correct errors, encourages the receiver to take part, and helps the sender judge the success of the message. In extension work, a farmer repeating the recommendation in his own words is the best evidence that communication has succeeded.

Key Terms

Key terms and their meanings

Term	Meaning
Communication process	The sequence by which a message passes from sender to receiver and back.
Encoding	Converting an idea into words, symbols or gestures.
Decoding	Interpreting symbols and giving them meaning.
Channel	The medium through which a message travels.
Feedback	The receiver's response that returns to the sender.

Exam Focus — Lecture 4

Key points to remember

- The communication process is the sequence: sender, encoding, message, channel, decoding, receiver, feedback.
- Nature: dynamic, social, reciprocal and interdependent.
- Encoding converts an idea into symbols; decoding converts symbols back into meaning.
- Noise acts on the channel and reduces fidelity.
- Feedback makes the process two-way and shows whether the message was understood.
- All elements are interdependent — failure of one affects the whole process.

Short-answer questions with model answers

Q1. Define the communication process and list its elements.

Answer: The communication process is the sequence of steps through which a message passes from a sender to a receiver and a response returns. Its elements are sender, encoding, message, channel, noise, receiver, decoding and feedback.

Q2. Explain the nature of the communication process.

Answer: The process is dynamic (always changing), social (involves people in a society), reciprocal (a give-and-take in which roles change) and interdependent (each element depends on the others).

Q3. What is encoding and what is decoding?

Answer: Encoding is the sender's act of converting an idea into words, symbols or gestures. Decoding is the receiver's act of interpreting those symbols and giving them meaning. Both must use the same code for the message to be understood.

Long-answer questions with answer outlines

Q1. Describe the communication process with the help of a diagram.

Outline: Define the process. Draw or describe the cycle: sender → encoding → message → channel (with noise) → receiver → decoding → feedback to sender. Explain each element with a short agricultural example. Conclude with the importance of feedback and the reduction of noise.

Q2. Discuss the nature and significance of the communication process in extension work.

Outline: Nature — dynamic, social, reciprocal, interdependent (explain each). Significance — helps locate breakdowns, stresses feedback, respects the receiver's frame of reference, underlies all extension methods, improves fidelity. Give examples from farm advisory work.

LECTURE 5
LECTURE 5

Communication Types

Learning Outcomes

- Distinguish verbal from non-verbal communication.
- Describe written, oral, interpersonal, intrapersonal and mass communication.
- Explain the components of non-verbal communication.
- Explain the functions of non-verbal communication.

Communication is classified in several ways. The most fundamental division is between **verbal communication**, which uses words, and **non-verbal communication**, which uses everything else — gestures, space, time, touch and appearance. Verbal communication is further divided into written and oral forms, and by the number of persons involved into interpersonal, intrapersonal and mass communication.

5.1 Verbal Communication

Verbal communication uses words, whether spoken or written. Words are the most precise means of conveying facts and ideas, but their meaning depends on the shared understanding of sender and receiver.

5.1.1 Written communication

Written communication uses written or printed words. Examples in agriculture include extension bulletins, leaflets, farm magazines, circular letters, research reports, and advisory letters to farmers. Its advantages are permanence, accuracy, and the ability to reach many people at once; a written record can be stored and referred to again. Its limitations are that it is slow, expensive to prepare, gives delayed feedback, and is useless for farmers who cannot read.

5.1.2 Oral communication

Oral communication uses spoken words. Examples include face-to-face talks, telephone calls, meetings, radio talks and group discussions. Its advantages are speed, immediate feedback, flexibility and the ability to use tone and emphasis; it is also suitable for illiterate audiences. Its limitations are that it leaves no permanent record, may be distorted in transmission, and is less precise than writing.

5.1.3 Interpersonal communication

Interpersonal communication takes place directly between two or a few persons who can see and respond to each other. It is personal, immediate and two-way. A farm visit, a telephone conversation or a chat at the market is interpersonal communication. It is highly effective for changing attitudes because feedback is instant and the message can be adjusted to the individual.

5.1.4 Intrapersonal communication

Intrapersonal communication is communication within oneself — thinking, reflecting, planning, self-talk and the silent rehearsal of a speech. It is the internal dialogue through which a person organises thoughts and makes decisions. Although it involves only one person, it is the base on which all other communication rests.

5.1.5 Mass communication

Mass communication is the transmission of messages to a large, scattered and anonymous audience through the mass media — newspapers, radio, television, films and the internet. It reaches many people quickly and uniformly, but feedback is delayed and impersonal. Farm broadcasts, agricultural documentaries and Krishi Darshan are examples.

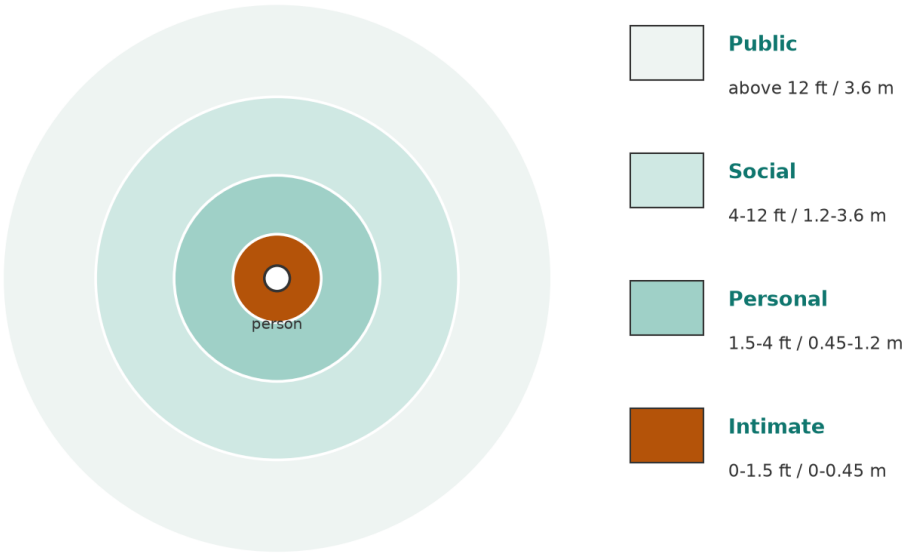
5.2 Non-Verbal Communication

Non-verbal communication conveys meaning without words. It often carries more emotional weight than words, and when the two conflict, people tend to believe the non-verbal message. In extension work, a farmer may read an officer's sincerity from the officer's manner long before judging the technical content. The main components are listed below.

5.2.1 Proxemics

Proxemics is the study of how people use and interpret space in communication. The distance maintained between two persons signals the nature of their relationship. Four zones are recognised: the **intimate** zone (up to about 1.5 feet), the **personal** zone (about 1.5 to 4 feet), the **social** zone (about 4 to 12 feet) and the **public** zone (above 12 feet). An extension worker standing too close may make a farmer uncomfortable; standing too far may seem unfriendly.

Fig. 6 Proxemics — the four zones of personal space



Distances are approximate and vary with culture, gender and relationship.

Fig. 6 Proxemics — the four zones of personal space (intimate, personal, social and public), shown as concentric bands around a person.

5.2.2 Haptics

Haptics is the study of communication through touch. A handshake, a pat on the back or a touch on the shoulder can convey warmth, encouragement or sympathy. Touch is culturally sensitive: what is friendly in one setting may be inappropriate in another, and gender and social relationships must be respected. In many Indian settings a warm handshake is accepted in professional dealings.

5.2.3 Gestures

Gestures are movements of the hands, arms, head or other body parts that carry meaning. Pointing, nodding, waving and counting on the fingers are all gestures. Gestures clarify and emphasise speech; a demonstration of sowing depth is made far clearer when the officer uses the hands. However, the same gesture may mean different things in different cultures, so gestures must be used with care.

5.2.4 Paralinguistic (paralanguage)

Paralanguage refers to the non-verbal features of the voice — tone, pitch, volume, rate, pauses and emphasis. The words may be the same, but ‘Come tomorrow’ can sound like an invitation or a warning depending on the tone. A pause before an important point draws attention to it; a rising pitch turns a statement into a question.

5.2.5 Facial expressions

The face is the most expressive part of the body. Smiling, frowning, raising the eyebrows and grimacing convey emotions instantly. Facial expressions are largely universal, so a genuine smile of welcome is understood across cultures. A communicator whose face is blank or contradicts the words creates confusion in the receiver.

5.2.6 Chronemics

Chronemics is the study of how time is used and interpreted in communication. Being punctual for a meeting, keeping a farmer waiting, or taking a long time to reply all carry meaning. Time communicates respect and priority. In extension work, arriving on time for a village meeting signals respect for the farmers’ time.

5.2.7 Oculesics

Oculesics is communication through eye contact and gaze. Steady, friendly eye contact shows interest, honesty and confidence; avoiding the gaze may suggest dishonesty or disinterest. In a group talk, moving the eyes around the audience makes every person feel included. As with touch, the acceptable amount of eye contact varies with culture and gender.

5.2.8 Posture

Posture is the way a person holds the body — standing, sitting, leaning or slouching. An upright, relaxed posture conveys confidence and attentiveness; a slouched posture suggests boredom or lack of interest. Posture also affects how a speaker feels: standing straight and breathing deeply reduces nervousness.

5.2.9 Appearance and artifacts

Appearance includes dress, grooming and general neatness. Artifacts are the objects a person carries or displays — a uniform, a badge, a soil-testing kit, a folder of charts. In extension work a neat, appropriate appearance and useful artifacts (such as a seed sample or a chart) increase the officer’s credibility and hold the audience’s attention. Dress should suit the occasion and the community.

Fig. 10 Classification of Communication

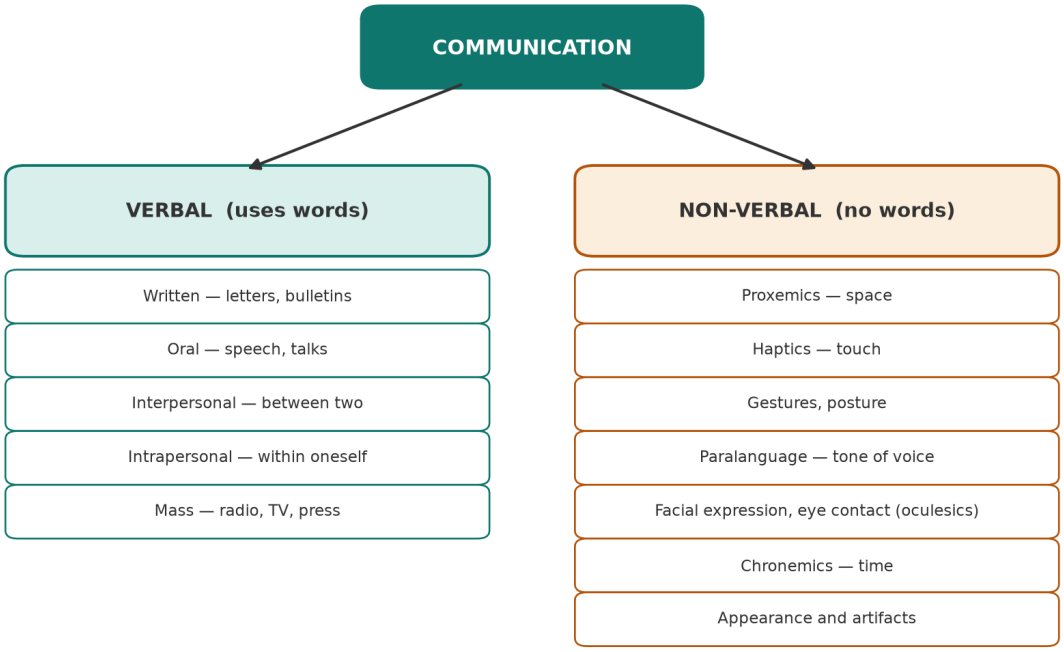


Fig. 10 Classification of communication — the verbal and non-verbal branches and their sub-types.

Table 5.1 Verbal versus non-verbal communication

Basis	Verbal communication	Non-verbal communication
Medium	Words — spoken or written	Body, space, time, touch, voice, appearance
Form	Discrete, structured (grammar, syntax)	Continuous, less structured
Meaning	Usually conscious and deliberate	Often unconscious and spontaneous
Precision	High for facts and detail	High for emotion and attitude
Records	Can be recorded and stored	Generally transient, hard to record
Examples	Speech, letters, bulletins, reports	Gestures, facial expression, posture, proxemics

Worked Example 5.1 Non-verbal cues at a farm visit

An extension officer visits a farmer to discuss a new package of practices. Notice what the non-verbal channel communicates.

- **Proxemics:** the officer stands about three feet away — the personal zone, appropriate for a serious discussion.
- **Haptics:** a firm handshake at the start conveys respect.
- **Gestures:** the officer uses the hands to show seed spacing.
- **Paralanguage:** a calm, moderate tone conveys patience.
- **Facial expression:** a smile on greeting builds warmth.
- **Chronemics:** the officer arrives at the agreed time, showing respect.
- **Oculesics:** steady eye contact while listening shows interest.
- **Posture:** the officer stands upright and relaxed, not with folded arms.
- **Appearance and artifacts:** a clean, simple dress and a soil-testing kit increase credibility.

5.3 Functions of Non-Verbal Communication

Non-verbal signals do not merely accompany words; they perform specific jobs in the message. Six functions are commonly identified.

- **Repeating:** a nod repeats the spoken ‘yes’.
- **Complementing:** a warm tone adds friendliness to a spoken greeting.
- **Accenting:** a raised voice stresses an important point.
- **Substituting:** a shrug replaces the words ‘I do not know’.
- **Regulating:** eye contact and nods control whose turn it is to speak.
- **Contradicting:** a nervous smile may contradict confident words — the most dangerous function, because it destroys trust.

When the verbal and the non-verbal messages contradict each other, the receiver usually believes the non-verbal. A communicator must therefore keep the two channels consistent.

Key Terms

Key terms and their meanings

Term	Meaning
Proxemics	The study of space in communication.
Haptics	Communication through touch.
Paralanguage	The non-verbal features of the voice — tone, pitch, volume, rate.
Chronemics	The study of time in communication.
Oculesics	Communication through eye contact and gaze.

Exam Focus — Lecture 5

Key points to remember

- Verbal communication uses words; it is written or oral.
- By number of persons: intrapersonal, interpersonal and mass communication.
- Non-verbal components: proxemics, haptics, gestures, paralanguage, facial expressions, chronemics, oculesics, posture, appearance and artifacts.
- Proxemics zones: intimate, personal, social and public.
- When words and non-verbal signals conflict, people usually trust the non-verbal.
- Non-verbal communication is especially important for emotion and attitude.

Short-answer questions with model answers

Q1. Distinguish between intrapersonal and interpersonal communication.

Answer: Intrapersonal communication is communication within oneself — thinking, reflection and self-talk, involving one person. Interpersonal communication takes place between two or a few persons who can see and respond to each other; it is two-way and immediate.

Q2. What is proxemics? Name the four zones.

Answer: Proxemics is the study of how people use and interpret space in communication. The four zones are intimate (up to about 1.5 ft), personal (1.5 to 4 ft), social (4 to 12 ft) and public (above 12 ft).

Q3. Define chronemics and oculesics.

Answer: Chronemics is the study of how time is used and interpreted in communication, for example punctuality as a sign of respect. Oculesics is communication through eye contact and gaze, for example steady eye contact showing interest and confidence.

Long-answer questions with answer outlines

Q1. Explain the components of non-verbal communication with examples.

Outline: Define non-verbal communication and its importance. Explain each component — proxemics, haptics, gestures, paralanguage, facial expressions, chronemics, oculesics, posture, appearance and artifacts — with one agricultural example each. Conclude that non-verbal cues often carry the emotional meaning of a message.

Q2. Compare verbal and non-verbal communication and explain the types of verbal communication.

Outline: Define both. Tabulate the differences (medium, form, meaning, precision, records). Then explain written, oral, interpersonal, intrapersonal and mass communication with examples and the merits and limitations of each.

LECTURE 6

LECTURE 6

Models of Communication

Learning Outcomes

- Classify communication models into linear, interactive and transactional.
- Explain the linear models of Aristotle, Lasswell, Shannon-Weaver, Berlo, Leagans and Rogers and Shoemaker.
- Explain the interactive models of Schramm and of Westley and MacLean.
- Explain Dance's transactional helical model.

A model is a simplified picture of a complex process. Communication models help us understand how a message travels from a sender to a receiver, and they show how the study of communication has developed over time. Models are grouped into three families: linear, interactive and transactional.

6.1 Linear Models

Linear models describe communication as a one-way process in which a message travels from a sender to a receiver. They do not, or barely, include feedback. They are the earliest and simplest models.

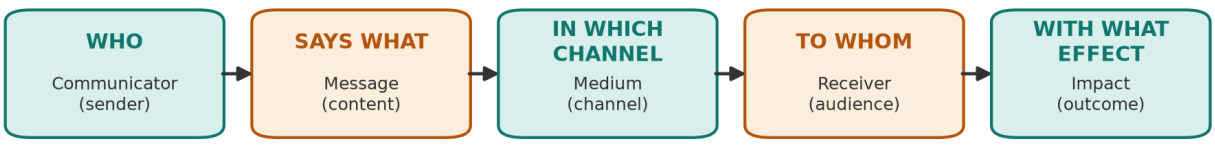
6.1.1 Aristotle's model

Aristotle, the Greek philosopher, described communication as a one-way act with three elements: the **speaker**, the **speech** and the **audience**. He studied how a speaker should construct a speech to persuade an audience. The model is simple and speaker-centred; it does not consider feedback, noise or the receiver's response.

6.1.2 Lasswell's model

Harold Lasswell (1948) described communication as a chain that answers five questions: **Who** says **What**, in **Which channel**, to **Whom**, with **What effect**. Each question corresponds to one element — communicator, message, channel, receiver and effect. The model is useful for analysing propaganda and mass communication, but like other linear models it treats communication as one-way.

Fig. 3 Lasswell Model — the five-element chain



Lasswell describes communication as a linear chain: each element answers one question about a single act of communication. It is a one-way, effect-centred model.

Fig. 3 Lasswell's model — the five elements arranged as a linear chain.

6.1.3 Shannon-Weaver model

Claude Shannon and Warren Weaver (1949) developed a mathematical model for telephone communication. Its elements are the **information source**, the **transmitter** (encoder), the **signal**, the **noise source**, the **receiver** (decoder) and the **destination**. The model's great contribution is the concept of **noise** — any interference that corrupts the signal. It was later applied to human communication.

Fig. 2 Shannon-Weaver Model of Communication

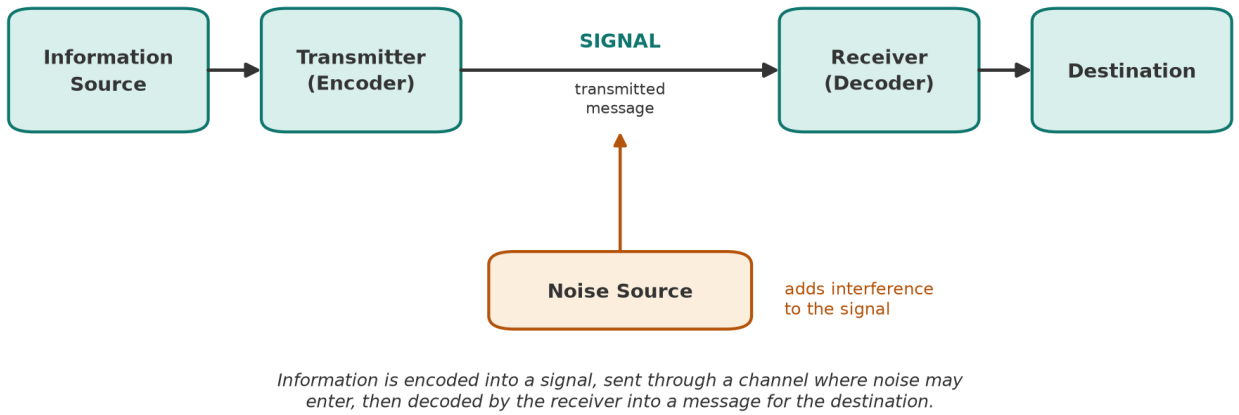


Fig. 2 Shannon-Weaver model — information source, transmitter, signal, noise source, receiver and destination.

6.1.4 Berlo's SMCR model

David Berlo (1960) gave the SMCR model: **S**ource, **M**essage, **C**hannel and **R**eceiver. Each element has sub-factors. The source and the receiver both have communication skills, attitudes, knowledge, social system and culture. The message has content, elements, treatment, structure and code; the channel consists of the five senses — seeing, hearing, touching, smelling and tasting. Communication succeeds when the factors at the two ends match.

Fig. 4 Berlo's SMCR Model

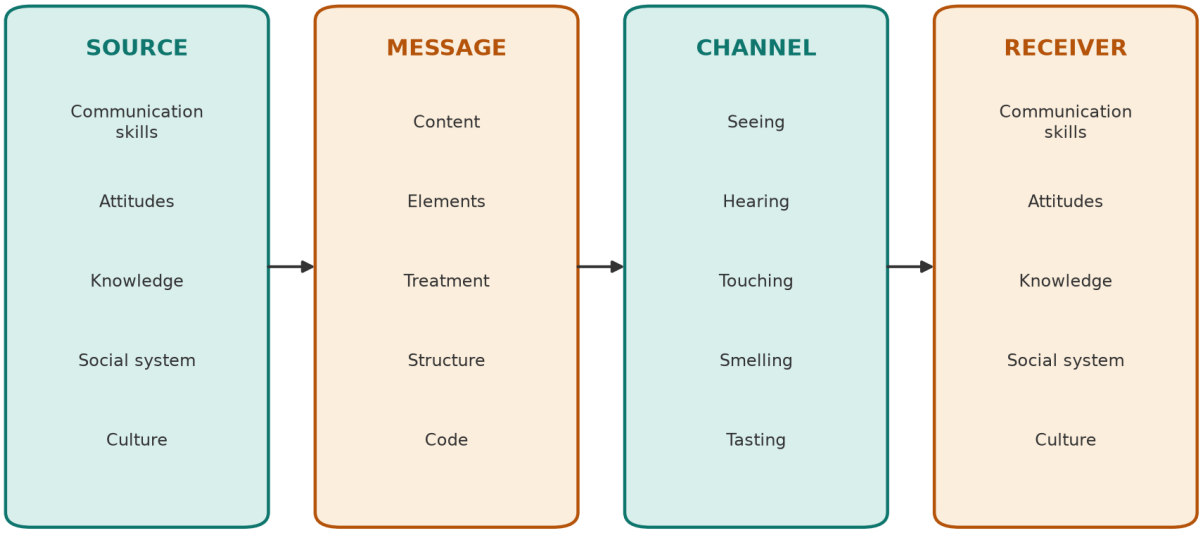


Fig. 4 Berlo's SMCR model — source, message, channel and receiver with their sub-factors.

6.1.5 Leagans' model

J. Paul Leagans (1963) gave a model of communication especially suited to extension education. Its elements are the **communicator** (the source), the **message** (the content), the **channel** (the medium), the **treatment** (the way the message is handled so that it suits the audience) and the **audience** (the receiver), followed by the **response** or feedback. Leagans stressed that the message must be treated or adapted to the needs and abilities of the audience — a key idea in extension teaching.

6.1.6 Rogers and Shoemaker's model

Everett Rogers and Floyd Shoemaker, in their work on the diffusion of innovations, described communication as a process in which a **source** encodes a **message** and sends it through a **channel** to a **receiver**, producing an **effect**. Their special contribution is the idea that communication is the means by which new ideas (innovations) spread through a social system over time, and that the receiver's characteristics decide whether the message is accepted.

6.2 Interactive Models

Interactive models improve on linear models by adding **feedback** and by showing that both parties take turns as sender and receiver. Communication is thus two-way.

6.2.1 Schramm's model

Wilbur Schramm showed communication as an interaction between two persons whose **fields of experience** overlap. The sender encodes a message; the receiver decodes it and responds, becoming the sender in turn. Meaning is possible only where the two fields of experience overlap. The larger the shared experience, the better the communication. Schramm also emphasised that the same person is both encoder and decoder.

Fig. 5 Schramm Model — overlapping fields of experience

Where the two circles overlap, sender and receiver share meaning.
The larger the overlap, the better the communication.

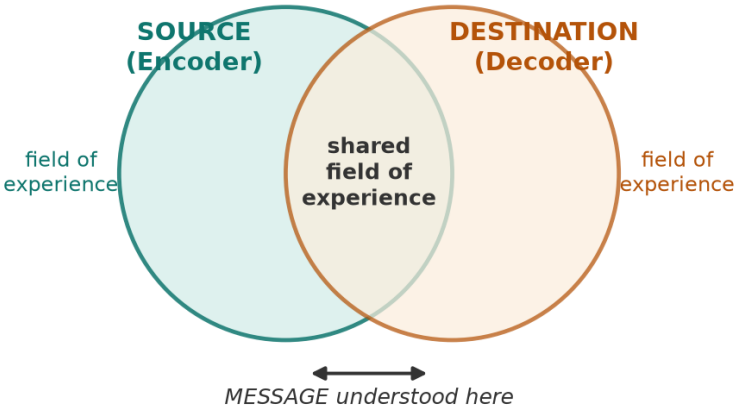


Fig. 5 Schramm's interactive model — two overlapping fields of experience.

6.2.2 Westley and MacLean's model

Bruce Westley and Malcolm MacLean extended the interactive idea to mass communication by introducing the **gatekeeper**. In mass communication the message passes through an editor or gatekeeper, who selects, shapes and sometimes suppresses what reaches the audience. The model shows that the audience, the source and the gatekeeper all influence one another through feedback.

6.3 Transactional Model

6.3.1 Dance's helical model

Frank Dance (1967) proposed the helical (spiral) model. Communication is shown as a helix that spirals upward: each new act of communication builds on earlier ones and never returns exactly to the starting point. The model captures two truths — communication is **continuous** (it never stops) and **cumulative** (what has been said before shapes what is said now). Because both parties are simultaneously sending and receiving, it is called a transactional model.

Table 6.1 Comparison of communication models

Model	Type	Main elements	Key feature / limitation
Aristotle	Linear	Speaker, speech, audience	Speaker-centred; no feedback
Lasswell	Linear	Who, what, channel, whom, effect	Five-question chain; useful for propaganda
Shannon-Weaver	Linear	Source, transmitter, signal, noise, receiver, destination	Introduced the concept of noise
Berlo (SMCR)	Linear	Source, message, channel, receiver with sub-factors	Detailed sub-factors; still largely one-way
Leagans	Linear	Communicator, message, channel, treatment, audience, response	Extension model; stresses treatment of the message
Rogers and Shoemaker	Linear	Source, message, channel, receiver, effect	Basis of the diffusion of innovations
Schramm	Interactive	Encoder, decoder, overlapping fields of experience	Adds feedback and shared experience
Westley and MacLean	Interactive	Source, gatekeeper, audience, feedback	Introduces the gatekeeper in mass communication
Dance (helical)	Transactional	Continuous, cumulative spiral of acts	Communication is continuous and cumulative

6.4 Uses and Limitations of Communication Models

Models are teaching aids and analytical tools. Their value lies in simplifying a complex process, but that very simplification is also their weakness.

Uses

- They simplify a complex process so that it can be studied and taught.
- They identify the elements of communication and show how they relate.
- They help locate where a message fails — in encoding, channel, noise or decoding.
- They guide the choice of channel and method in extension work.

Limitations

- No model can capture the full richness of real human communication.
- Early linear models ignore feedback and the active role of the receiver.
- Models assume a rational process, while real communication is also emotional and cultural.
- A model that suits mass communication may not suit face-to-face extension teaching.

Key Terms

Key terms and their meanings

Term	Meaning
Model	A simplified picture of a complex process.
Linear model	A model that shows communication as a one-way flow.
Interactive model	A model that adds feedback and two-way exchange.
Transactional model	A model in which both parties send and receive simultaneously.
Gatekeeper	A person, such as an editor, who selects the messages that reach an audience.

Exam Focus — Lecture 6

Key points to remember

- Three families: linear (one-way), interactive (two-way with feedback), transactional (simultaneous and cumulative).
- Aristotle — speaker, speech, audience.
- Lasswell — who, what, channel, whom, effect.
- Shannon-Weaver — contributed the concept of noise.
- Berlo — SMCR model with sub-factors.
- Leagans — extension model; adds ‘treatment’ of the message.
- Schramm — overlapping fields of experience; feedback.
- Dance — helical model; communication is continuous and cumulative.

Short-answer questions with model answers

Q1. State Lasswell’s model of communication.

Answer: Lasswell described communication as a chain answering five questions: Who says What, in Which channel, to Whom, with What effect. The elements are the communicator, the message, the channel, the receiver and the effect.

Q2. What is the special contribution of the Shannon-Weaver model?

Answer: Its special contribution is the concept of noise — any interference that corrupts the signal between the transmitter and the receiver, thereby reducing the fidelity of communication.

Q3. Why is Dance’s model called transactional?

Answer: Because it shows communication as a continuous, cumulative spiral in which both parties send and receive at the same time, and each act builds on previous acts; it never returns exactly to its starting point.

Long-answer questions with answer outlines

Q1. Describe Berlo’s SMCR model and explain its sub-factors.

Outline: Introduce the model. Source factors — communication skills, attitudes, knowledge, social system, culture. Message factors — content, elements, treatment, structure, code. Channel — the five senses. Receiver factors — same as source. Conclude that communication succeeds when the two ends match.

Q2. Classify communication models into linear, interactive and transactional, and explain one model from each family.

Outline: Define the three families. Linear — explain Lasswell or Shannon-Weaver. Interactive — explain Schramm. Transactional — explain Dance’s helical model. Compare them in a table and conclude how the study of communication has evolved.

LECTURE 7

LECTURE 7

Barriers to Communication and Communication Gap

Learning Outcomes

- Distinguish linguistic from non-linguistic barriers.
- List the types of communication gap.
- Explain the meaning and disadvantages of miscommunication.
- Suggest ways of overcoming barriers and bridging gaps.

Even a well-prepared message can fail to reach or convince the receiver. Anything that interferes with the smooth flow of a message is called a barrier. Barriers reduce the fidelity of communication and create a communication gap between the sender and the receiver.

Barrier and communication gap

A barrier is any obstacle that obstructs or distorts the flow of a message from the sender to the receiver. A communication gap is the distance or difference between what the sender intended to convey and what the receiver actually understood.

Fig. 9 Barriers to Communication

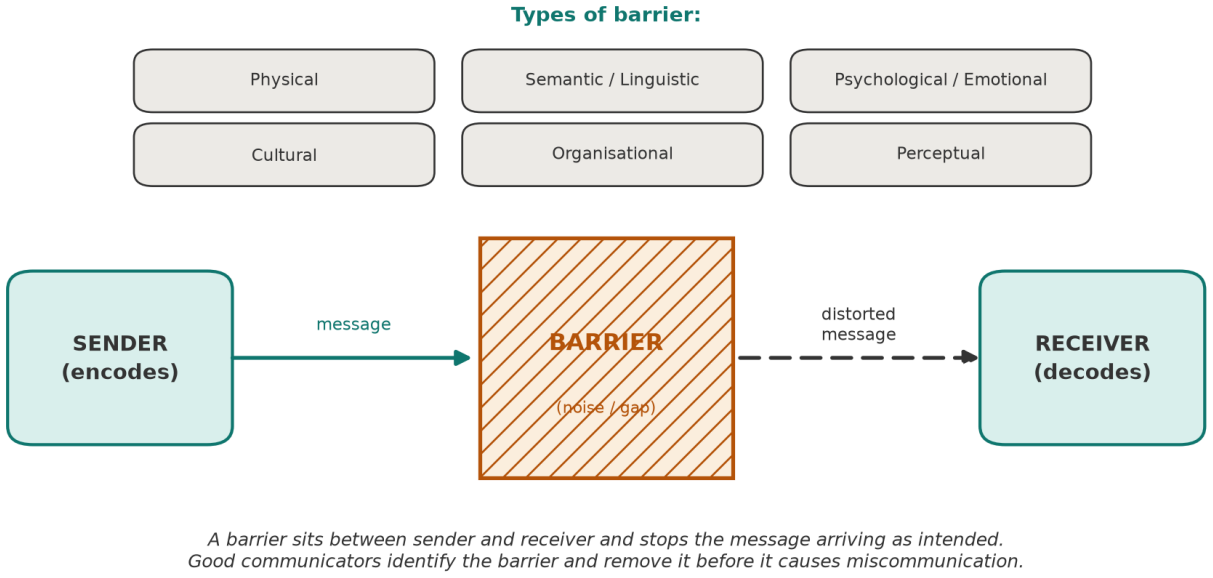


Fig. 9 A barrier sitting between the sender and the receiver distorts the message on its way.

7.1 Linguistic Barriers

Linguistic barriers arise from language and the use of words.

- **Semantic barriers:** the same word may have different meanings for different people (*semantic* = relating to meaning).
- **Technical jargon:** specialist terms that the receiver does not understand, such as ‘integrated pest management’ or ‘conservation agriculture’.
- **Poor vocabulary:** the receiver lacks the words needed to grasp the message.

- **Bad grammar and faulty sentence construction:** the message becomes ambiguous.
- **Poorly expressed message:** vague, disorganised or wordy communication.
- **Different languages and dialects:** the sender and receiver do not share a common tongue.

7.2 Non-Linguistic Barriers

Non-linguistic barriers arise from factors other than language.

- **Physical barriers:** distance, noise, poor telephone line, a crowded or hot room, poor lighting.
- **Physiological barriers:** deafness, poor eyesight, illness, fatigue or hunger of sender or receiver.
- **Psychological or emotional barriers:** fear, anger, stress, prejudice, lack of trust, distrust of the sender.
- **Perceptual barriers:** people see the same message differently because of their beliefs and experience.
- **Cultural barriers:** differences in customs, values, food habits and social norms.
- **Organisational barriers:** too many levels in a hierarchy, rigid rules, status differences, poor channels.
- **Attitudinal barriers:** unwillingness to listen, overconfidence, indifference.
- **Gender and age barriers:** differences in expectations and experience between men and women, or between the young and the old.

7.3 Communication Gap

A communication gap exists when there is a mismatch between the message sent and the message received, or when information does not reach the person who needs it. Gaps commonly arise because of heterophily, poor channels, or barriers. The main types of communication gap are described below.

7.3.1 Vertical gap

A vertical gap occurs between different levels of a hierarchy — for example, between a senior officer at the state headquarters and a village-level worker, or between a scientist and a farmer. Messages lose accuracy as they pass down or up through many levels. Each level may filter, simplify or distort the message.

7.3.2 Horizontal gap

A horizontal gap occurs between persons or units at the same level — for example, between the agriculture department and the animal husbandry department, or between two subject-matter specialists. Poor coordination and departmental rivalry create horizontal gaps, so that farmers receive conflicting advice.

7.3.3 Internal gap

An internal gap is a gap within an organisation — between its own departments, or between what the organisation says and what it actually does. If a department’s circular does not reach its own field staff, an internal gap exists.

7.3.4 External gap

An external gap is a gap between an organisation and the outside world — for example, between a research station and the farming community, or between a company and its customers. The organisation does not understand the needs or language of its audience.

7.3.5 Knowledge gap

A knowledge gap exists when some people have the information and others do not. Better educated and better connected farmers often adopt new practices earlier, widening the gap between them and the rest. Bridging the knowledge gap is a central aim of extension work.

7.3.6 Delivery gap

A delivery gap exists when the message is well designed but is not delivered properly — because the channel is wrong, the timing is poor, or the material is not distributed. A good leaflet printed but never handed out creates a delivery gap.

7.3.7 Generation gap

A generation gap exists between older and younger persons because of differences in experience, values and technology. An older farmer may distrust a new method recommended by a young officer; a young farmer may reject traditional practices. Understanding and respect on both sides can bridge this gap.

7.4 Miscommunication

Miscommunication is the failure to communicate clearly, resulting in the receiver understanding the message differently from the sender’s intention. It is the result of barriers and gaps operating together.

7.4.1 Disadvantages of miscommunication

- Wrong actions on the farm — for example, applying the wrong dose of fertiliser.
- Loss of time, money and crop yield.
- Loss of trust between farmers and extension staff.
- Conflicts and disputes among individuals and groups.
- Wasted effort in preparing messages that are not understood.
- Delay in the adoption of useful technology.

Fig. 11 Types of Communication Gap

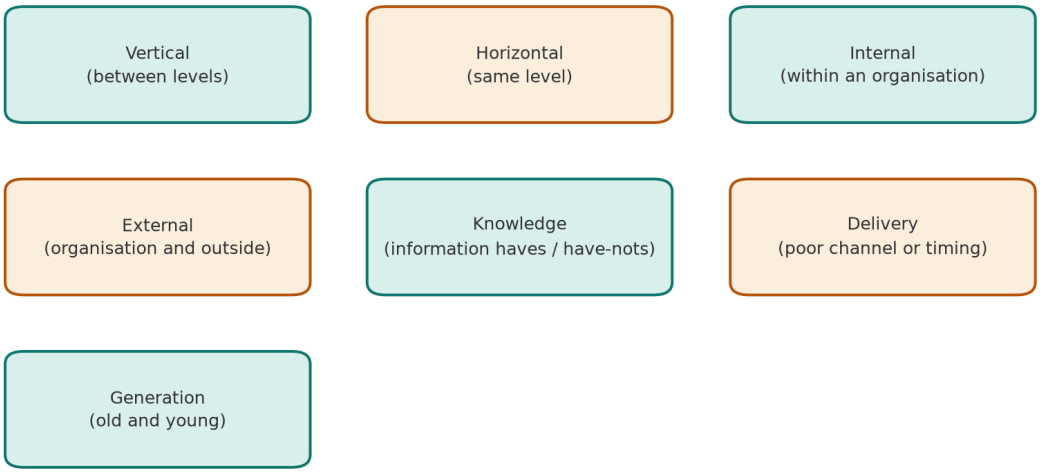


Fig. 11 The seven types of communication gap.

Table 7.1 Barriers to communication with examples

Type of barrier	Cause	Agricultural example
Semantic / linguistic	Same word, different meanings; jargon	Farmer understands ‘dose’ as total quantity, not per acre
Physical	Noise, distance, poor channel	Loudspeaker announcement lost in the noise of a market
Physiological	Hearing or sight difficulty, fatigue	An elderly farmer cannot read a small-print leaflet
Psychological	Fear, prejudice, lack of trust	Farmer distrusts advice from a stranger
Cultural	Different customs and values	A recommendation that ignores local food habits
Organisational	Too many levels, rigid rules	Message distorted as it passes down four office levels
Perceptual	Different interpretation of the same message	Two farmers read the same rainfall advisory differently

7.5 Overcoming Barriers and Bridging the Communication Gap

Barriers can be reduced and gaps bridged by following a few practical rules in extension communication.

- **Use simple language:** prefer the farmer’s own words; explain technical terms.
- **Know the audience:** study the education, language, beliefs and needs of the receivers.
- **Choose the right channel:** match the medium to the message and the audience — a demonstration for a practice, a leaflet for details.
- **Use feedback:** ask the receiver to repeat the message in his own words.
- **Repeat key points:** important messages should be repeated through more than one channel.
- **Use local leaders as bridges:** a trusted villager reduces heterophily and distrust.
- **Time the message well:** deliver it when the farmer needs it, not out of season.

- **Reduce the number of levels:** shorter chains of transmission distort less.
- **Train the communicators:** a skilled village-level worker keeps the message faithful.

Key Terms

Key terms and their meanings

Term	Meaning
Barrier	An obstacle that obstructs or distorts a message.
Communication gap	The difference between the message sent and the message understood.
Miscommunication	Understanding a message differently from the sender’s intention.
Jargon	Specialist technical language that a general audience does not understand.

Exam Focus — Lecture 7

Key points to remember

- Barriers reduce fidelity; they are linguistic or non-linguistic.
- Linguistic: semantic, jargon, poor vocabulary, grammar, language differences.
- Non-linguistic: physical, physiological, psychological, cultural, organisational, perceptual.
- Types of communication gap: vertical, horizontal, internal, external, knowledge, delivery, generation.
- Miscommunication is understanding different from intention.
- Disadvantages: wrong action, loss of money and trust, conflict, delayed adoption.

Short-answer questions with model answers

Q1. What is a communication barrier? Name two linguistic barriers.

Answer: A communication barrier is any obstacle that obstructs or distorts the flow of a message. Two linguistic barriers are semantic barriers (same word, different meanings) and the use of technical jargon that the receiver does not understand.

Q2. Distinguish between vertical and horizontal communication gaps.

Answer: A vertical gap occurs between different levels of a hierarchy, such as between a senior officer and a village-level worker, and distorts messages as they pass up or down. A horizontal gap occurs between persons or units at the same level, such as between two departments, and leads to poor coordination and conflicting advice.

Q3. What is a knowledge gap?

Answer: A knowledge gap exists when some people possess information and others do not. Better educated and better connected farmers adopt new practices earlier, so the gap between them and the rest widens; bridging it is a key aim of extension work.

Long-answer questions with answer outlines

Q1. Explain the linguistic and non-linguistic barriers to communication with examples.

Outline: Define barriers. Linguistic barriers — semantic, jargon, poor vocabulary, faulty grammar, language differences. Non-linguistic barriers — physical, physiological, psychological, perceptual, cultural, organisational, attitudinal, gender and age. Give one agricultural example for each. Conclude with how barriers can be reduced.

Q2. Discuss the types of communication gap and the disadvantages of miscommunication.

Outline: Define gap and miscommunication. Explain the seven gaps — vertical, horizontal, internal, external, knowledge, delivery, generation. Then list the disadvantages of miscommunication: wrong farm action, loss of money and yield, loss of trust, conflict, wasted effort, delayed adoption. Conclude with preventive measures.

LECTURE 8
LECTURE 8

Listening and Speaking

Learning Outcomes

- Distinguish hearing from listening.
- Describe the stages of the listening process.
- Explain the types of listening.
- Explain speaking skills and the types of speaking.

Listening and speaking are the two halves of oral communication. Speaking without listening produces a monologue; listening without speaking produces silence. Effective oral communication requires skill in both, and listening is by far the more neglected skill.

8.1 Listening — Definition and Meaning

Listening

Listening is the conscious, active process of receiving, attending to, interpreting and responding to spoken (and sometimes non-verbal) messages. It is a deliberate mental activity, unlike hearing, which is merely the passive reception of sound by the ear.

8.2 Hearing versus Listening

Hearing is a physical, involuntary act — sound waves reach the ear and are sensed. Listening is a mental, voluntary act — the mind selects, interprets and remembers the sound. A person can hear without listening (for example, while daydreaming in class) and can listen carefully even in a noisy room by focusing attention.

Table 8.1 Hearing versus listening

Basis	Hearing	Listening
Nature	Physical and involuntary	Mental and voluntary
Organ involved	Ear only	Ear and mind together
Attention	No conscious attention needed	Conscious attention is essential
Understanding	Sound is sensed but not necessarily understood	Sound is interpreted and understood
Control	Cannot be stopped at will	Can be started, stopped and improved at will
Example	Hearing traffic noise while reading	Following a lecture and taking notes

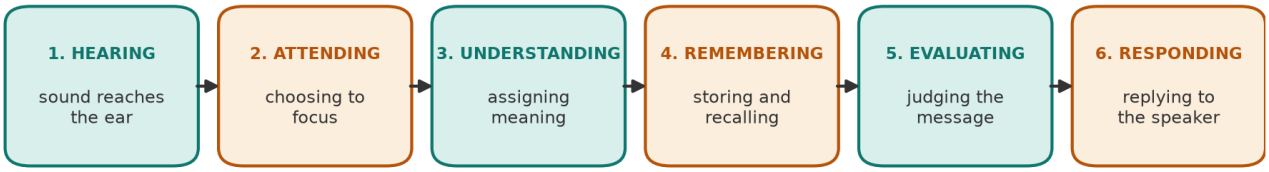
8.3 Stages of the Listening Process

Listening proceeds through a series of stages. The stages are sequential, but a listener may move back and forth between them.

1. **Hearing:** the sound waves reach the ear — the physical beginning.
2. **Attending:** the listener chooses to focus attention on the message and ignores distractions.

3. **Understanding:** the listener assigns meaning to the words, relating them to what is already known.
4. **Remembering:** the message is stored in memory and can be recalled later.
5. **Evaluating:** the listener judges the message — is it true, useful, reasonable?
6. **Responding:** the listener replies, asks questions or gives feedback to the speaker.

Fig. 7 The Listening Process — a staged flow



The stages are sequential but not strictly linear — a listener may move back and forth. Responding completes the cycle and starts the speaker's next turn.

Fig. 7 The listening process — hearing, attending, understanding, remembering, evaluating and responding.

8.4 Types of Listening

Listening is practised in different ways according to the purpose. The main types are given below.

- **Active listening:** the listener is fully involved, pays close attention, asks questions, paraphrases and gives feedback. It is the most effective type.
- **Passive listening:** the listener simply receives the message without much involvement or response.
- **Appreciative listening:** listening for pleasure or enjoyment — music, a story, a poem.
- **Critical listening:** listening to evaluate and judge the logic, truth and reliability of the message.
- **Discriminative listening:** listening to distinguish sounds, tones and nuances — important for learning pronunciation or a new language.
- **Comprehension listening:** listening to understand and grasp the meaning of a message.
- **Selective listening:** listening only to the parts that interest the listener and ignoring the rest.

Table 8.2 Types of listening and their purpose

Type	Purpose	Example
Active	Full involvement and feedback	Listening to a farmer and repeating his problem back
Passive	Simple reception without response	Hearing a radio programme in the background
Appreciative	Pleasure and enjoyment	Listening to folk songs at a village fair
Critical	To judge and evaluate	Judging the claims of a fertiliser advertisement
Discriminative	To distinguish sounds and tones	Learning the correct pronunciation of terms
Comprehension	To understand the meaning	Following a lecture on crop protection
Selective	To pick only what interests the listener	Listening only to the price part of a market bulletin

8.5 Speaking Skills

Speaking is the productive oral skill. It has two broad groups of sub-skills: motor-perceptive skills and interaction skills.

8.5.1 Motor-perceptive skills

Motor-perceptive skills are the physical and mental skills of producing speech: correct pronunciation, clear articulation, proper stress and intonation, appropriate speed and volume, and control of the voice. These skills make speech clear and intelligible. They are improved by reading aloud, practising tongue-twisters and imitating good speakers.

8.5.2 Interaction skills

Interaction skills are the social skills of using speech to communicate with others: taking turns, beginning and ending a conversation, asking and answering questions, adapting the language to the listener, and using non-verbal cues such as eye contact and gestures. These skills make speech appropriate and effective in a social setting.

8.6 Types of Speaking

- **Imitative speaking:** repeating words or sentences to practise pronunciation and rhythm.
- **Intensive speaking:** practising a short, focused task such as reading a passage aloud or giving a one-line answer.
- **Responsive speaking:** short replies in a conversation — answering a question or greeting a person.
- **Transactional speaking:** speaking to get something done — asking for information, negotiating a price, giving directions.
- **Interpersonal speaking:** speaking to maintain social relationships — chatting, greeting, expressing feelings.
- **Extensive speaking:** speaking at length — a speech, a lecture or a presentation.

8.7 Barriers to Effective Listening

- **Physical distractions:** noise, poor acoustics, an uncomfortable room.
- **Physiological factors:** fatigue, hunger, hearing difficulty, illness.
- **Preoccupation:** the mind is busy with other matters.

- **Prejudice:** rejecting a message because of dislike for the speaker.
- **Day-dreaming:** the mind wanders because the listener thinks faster than the speaker speaks.
- **Premature evaluation:** judging the message before it is finished.
- **Information overload:** too many messages at once.

8.8 How to Improve Listening

- Stop talking and give full attention to the speaker.
- Look at the speaker and show interest through non-verbal cues.
- Put the speaker at ease; do not interrupt or argue.
- Concentrate on the main ideas rather than on every word.
- Take brief notes of key points.
- Ask questions and paraphrase to confirm understanding.
- Control emotions; postpone judgement until the message is complete.

Key Terms

Key terms and their meanings

Term	Meaning
Listening	The active process of attending to, interpreting and responding to a message.
Hearing	The passive physical reception of sound by the ear.
Active listening	Listening with full involvement, questioning and feedback.
Motor-perceptive skills	Physical speech skills such as pronunciation and articulation.
Interaction skills	Social speech skills such as turn-taking and adapting to the listener.

Exam Focus — Lecture 8

Key points to remember

- Listening is active and voluntary; hearing is passive and involuntary.
- Stages: hearing, attending, understanding, remembering, evaluating, responding.
- Types of listening: active, passive, appreciative, critical, discriminative, comprehension, selective.
- Speaking sub-skills: motor-perceptive (pronunciation, articulation) and interaction (turn-taking, adapting).
- Types of speaking: imitative, intensive, responsive, transactional, interpersonal, extensive.
- Active listening with feedback is the most effective kind of listening.

Short-answer questions with model answers

Q1. Distinguish between hearing and listening.

Answer: Hearing is the physical, involuntary reception of sound by the ear. Listening is the mental, voluntary process of attending to, interpreting and responding to the message. Hearing needs no attention; listening requires conscious attention.

Q2. What is active listening?

Answer: Active listening is the type of listening in which the listener is fully involved — paying close attention, asking questions, paraphrasing and giving feedback to the speaker. It is the most effective form of listening.

Q3. Name the two groups of speaking sub-skills.

Answer: Motor-perceptive skills (correct pronunciation, articulation, stress, intonation and voice control) and interaction skills (turn-taking, questioning, adapting language to the listener and using non-verbal cues).

Long-answer questions with answer outlines

Q1. Describe the stages of the listening process and the types of listening.

Outline: Define listening. Stages — hearing, attending, understanding, remembering, evaluating, responding (explain each). Types — active, passive, appreciative, critical, discriminative, comprehension, selective (one line each). Conclude with the importance of active listening in extension work.

Q2. Explain speaking skills and the types of speaking.

Outline: Speaking as a productive skill. Motor-perceptive skills — pronunciation, articulation, stress, intonation. Interaction skills — turn-taking, questioning, adapting to the listener. Types of speaking — imitative, intensive, responsive, transactional, interpersonal, extensive, with examples.

LECTURE 9

LECTURE 9

Reading Skills

Learning Outcomes

- Explain the types of reading.
- Explain reading comprehension and comprehension skills.
- Calculate and interpret a readability index.
- Apply the guidelines for effective reading.

Reading is the process of looking at written symbols and deriving meaning from them. It is a receptive skill, like listening, but it works through the eye rather than the ear. Reading is the foundation of all learning: a student of agriculture must read textbooks, bulletins, research papers, government circulars and market reports throughout his career.

Reading

Reading is the active, purposeful process of perceiving written or printed symbols and constructing meaning from them. It combines recognition of words with understanding of their meaning in context.

9.1 Types of Reading

Different purposes call for different ways of reading. The main types are described below.

9.1.1 Intensive reading

Intensive reading is careful, detailed reading of a short text to extract complete meaning — every fact, argument and detail. It is slow and thorough. It is used for studying a textbook chapter, a research paper or a legal document. The reader may take notes and look up unfamiliar words.

9.1.2 Extensive reading

Extensive reading is rapid, wide reading for pleasure or general understanding, without attending to every detail. It builds vocabulary, fluency and general knowledge. Reading a newspaper, a farm magazine or a novel is extensive reading.

9.1.3 Selective reading

Selective reading is reading with a specific purpose — picking out only the material that is relevant to a question or a need, and skipping the rest. A student revising for an examination reads selectively, looking only for the topics likely to be asked.

9.1.4 Loud (oral) reading

Loud reading is reading aloud. It improves pronunciation, articulation and confidence in speaking, and it is useful for reading to an audience or for proof-reading one’s own work. It is, however, slower than silent reading.

9.1.5 Silent reading

Silent reading is reading without pronouncing the words. It is much faster than loud reading and allows the reader to concentrate on meaning rather than sound. Most study and all examination-hall reading is silent reading.

9.1.6 Skimming

Skimming is reading quickly to get the **general idea** or the gist of a text. The reader looks at headings, the first and last sentences of paragraphs, and key words. Skimming is used to decide whether an article is worth reading in detail.

9.1.7 Scanning

Scanning is reading quickly to find a **specific piece of information**, such as a date, a name, a figure or a word. The reader's eye moves rapidly over the text until the target is found. Looking up a price in a market report or a number in a table is scanning.

Table 9.1 Types of reading

Type	Speed and depth	Purpose	Example
Intensive	Slow, thorough	Complete understanding of a short text	Studying a chapter on crop protection
Extensive	Fast, wide	Pleasure and general understanding	Reading a farm magazine
Selective	Medium	Pick only relevant material	Revising selected topics for an exam
Loud (oral)	Slow	Pronunciation and reading to others	Reading a notice aloud at a meeting
Silent	Fast	Study and comprehension	Reading a question paper in the exam hall
Skimming	Very fast	Get the general idea or gist	Glancing through a bulletin before deciding to read it
Scanning	Very fast	Find a specific fact or figure	Searching a price list for today's rate

9.2 Comprehension and Reading Comprehension

Comprehension is the act of understanding what is read or heard. **Reading comprehension** is the ability to read a text and understand its meaning — to grasp the main idea, the supporting details, the sequence, the relationships and the writer's purpose. It is not enough to recognise words; the reader must construct meaning from them.

9.2.1 Comprehension skills

- **Identifying the main idea:** finding the central point of the passage.
- **Locating supporting details:** picking out the facts, examples and reasons that support the main idea.
- **Understanding vocabulary in context:** working out the meaning of a word from its surroundings.
- **Recognising sequence:** following the order of events or steps.
- **Drawing inferences:** reading between the lines to understand what is implied but not stated.
- **Identifying the writer's purpose and tone:** deciding whether the writer informs, persuades or entertains.
- **Distinguishing fact from opinion:** separating verifiable statements from personal views.

9.3 Readability Index

The readability index is a numerical measure of how easy or difficult a piece of writing is to read. It is calculated from the length of sentences and the length of words. Writers of extension material use readability indices to make sure that a leaflet meant for farmers is written in simple language. The most widely used measure is the **Flesch Reading Ease** score.

Flesch Reading Ease

Flesch Reading Ease = 206.835 – 1.015 × (average sentence length) – 84.6 × (average number of syllables per word). A higher score means easier reading: 90-100 very easy, 60-70 standard, 30-50 difficult, 0-30 very difficult.

Worked Example 9.1 Calculating the readability of a farm advisory

Consider the following passage written for farmers:

"The extension officer explained the new method to the farmers. He showed them how to treat the seed before sowing. The farmers listened carefully and asked several questions. Most of them agreed to try the method on a small plot of land."

Step 1 — Count the words and sentences. Words = 42; sentences = 4.

Step 2 — Count the syllables. Total syllables = 65.

Step 3 — Average sentence length (ASL). ASL = 42 ÷ 4 = 10.5 words.

Step 4 — Average syllables per word (ASW). ASW = 65 ÷ 42 = 1.55.

Step 5 — Apply the formula. Flesch Reading Ease = 206.835 – (1.015 × 10.5) – (84.6 × 1.55) = 206.835 – 10.66 – 131.13 = **65.0**.

Interpretation. A score of about 65 falls in the 'standard / plain English' band, which is suitable for a general audience such as farmers. The related Flesch-Kincaid grade level for this passage is about 6.8, meaning it can be understood by a student of about class seven.

9.4 Guidelines for Effective Reading

- **Decide your purpose first.** Choose skimming, scanning or intensive reading accordingly.
- **Preview the text.** Read the title, headings, sub-headings and the first and last paragraphs.
- **Ask questions.** Turn headings into questions and read to find the answers.
- **Read actively.** Underline key points, make notes and mark unfamiliar words.
- **Use a dictionary** for difficult words, but try to guess meaning from context first.
- **Improve speed** by reading in groups of words, not word by word.
- **Vary your speed** — slow down for difficult matter, speed up for familiar matter.
- **Revise and recall.** After reading, close the book and try to recall the main points.
- **Build the habit.** Read a newspaper or a magazine daily to widen vocabulary and knowledge.

9.5 The SQ3R Method of Reading

SQ3R is a well-known study method that combines the different types of reading into a single routine for understanding and remembering a textbook chapter.

1. **Survey:** skim the chapter — title, headings, figures, summary — to get the overall picture.
2. **Question:** turn each heading into a question that the section should answer.

3. **Read:** read the section intensively to find the answer to the question.
4. **Recite:** close the book and answer the question aloud in your own words.
5. **Review:** revise the whole chapter at intervals to fix it in memory.

The method works because it keeps the reader active, asks questions, and forces recall, which strengthens memory far more than passive reading.

Key Terms

Key terms and their meanings

Term	Meaning
Skimming	Reading quickly for the general idea.
Scanning	Reading quickly to find a specific fact.
Reading comprehension	The ability to read and understand the meaning of a text.
Readability index	A number showing how easy a text is to read.
Flesch Reading Ease	A readability formula based on sentence and word length.

Exam Focus — Lecture 9

Key points to remember

- Reading is a receptive skill; it derives meaning from written symbols.
- Types: intensive, extensive, selective, loud, silent, skimming, scanning.
- Skimming = general idea; scanning = specific information.
- Reading comprehension = understanding main idea, details, sequence, purpose, tone.
- Readability index measures how easy a text is to read.
- Flesch Reading Ease = 206.835 – 1.015(ASL) – 84.6(ASW); higher score = easier.

Short-answer questions with model answers

Q1. Distinguish between skimming and scanning.

Answer: Skimming is reading quickly to get the general idea or gist of a text, looking at headings and topic sentences. Scanning is reading quickly to locate a specific piece of information such as a date, name or figure.

Q2. What is reading comprehension?

Answer: Reading comprehension is the ability to read a text and understand its meaning — to grasp the main idea, supporting details, sequence, relationships and the writer's purpose, and to draw inferences.

Q3. What is a readability index?

Answer: A readability index is a numerical measure of how easy or difficult a piece of writing is to read, calculated from sentence length and word length. The Flesch Reading Ease score is a common example.

Long-answer questions with answer outlines

Q1. Explain the types of reading with examples.

Outline: Define reading. Explain intensive, extensive, selective, loud, silent, skimming and scanning — one short paragraph each with an example. Conclude with how the purpose decides the type of reading used.

Q2. Describe comprehension skills and the guidelines for effective reading.

Outline: Define comprehension. Comprehension skills — main idea, supporting details, vocabulary in context, sequence, inference, purpose and tone, fact versus opinion. Guidelines — decide purpose, preview, ask questions, read actively, use a dictionary, improve speed, vary speed, revise and recall, build the habit.

LECTURE 10

LECTURE 10

Writing Skills

Learning Outcomes

- Describe Graham’s stages of the writing process.
- Identify the types of writing.
- Apply the practices that make writing easy to read.
- State the points to be considered in technical writing.

Writing is the productive skill of putting thoughts into written symbols. It is more demanding than speaking because the writer has time to think, but also no immediate feedback from the reader. Good writing must be clear, correct, concise and complete, so that the reader understands the message at the first reading.

10.1 Graham’s Flow Chart of the Writing Process

Steve Graham and his colleagues described writing as a process with distinct stages. The writer does not sit down and produce a finished text in one attempt; instead, the work passes through planning, drafting, revising, editing and publishing, and the writer often loops back to earlier stages. This is why the writing process is called *recursive*.

1. **Planning:** decide the purpose, the audience and the main ideas; gather material and arrange it in order.
2. **Drafting:** write the first rough version without worrying about perfection; get the ideas down on paper.
3. **Revising:** improve the content, the order and the clarity; add, remove or rearrange ideas.
4. **Editing:** correct grammar, spelling, punctuation and word choice; polish the sentences.
5. **Publishing:** share the final text with the reader — submit it, print it or present it.

Fig. 8 Graham's Flow Chart of the Writing Process

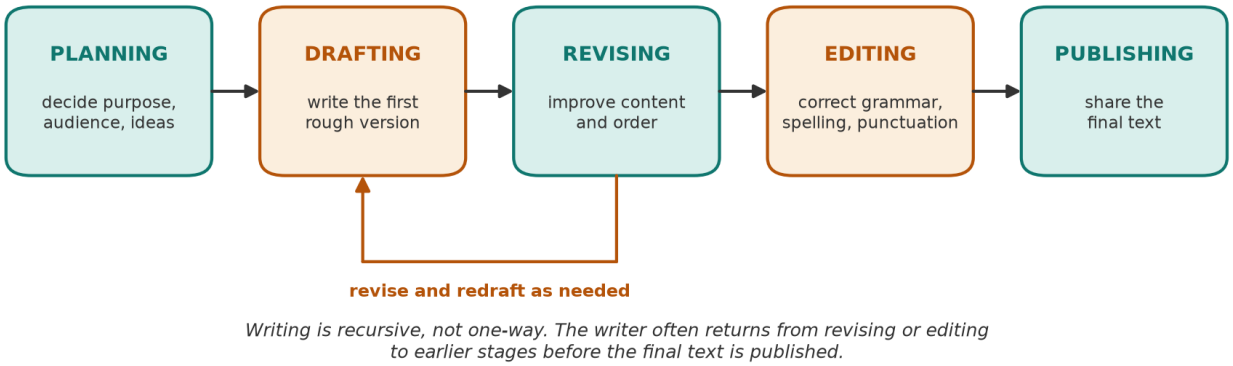


Fig. 8 Graham's flow chart of the writing process — planning, drafting, revising, editing and publishing, with revision looping back.

10.2 Types of Writing

- **Expository writing:** explains or informs — a textbook chapter, a research article, a technical bulletin.
- **Descriptive writing:** describes a person, place, thing or process — a description of a crop disease or a farm machine.
- **Narrative writing:** tells a story or relates events in order — a field-trip report or a case study of a successful farmer.
- **Persuasive (argumentative) writing:** tries to convince the reader — an extension appeal or an editorial recommending a practice.
- **Technical writing:** presents specialised information for a practical purpose — a package of practices, a project report, an operator's manual.
- **Letter and report writing:** formal correspondence and official reports.

10.3 Writing Skills for Easy Reading

Writing is useful only if it is understood. The following practices make writing easy to read.

- **Use short sentences.** One idea per sentence; avoid long, tangled constructions.
- **Choose simple, familiar words.** Prefer 'use' to 'utilise'; explain technical terms when they must be used.
- **Prefer the active voice.** 'The officer advised the farmers' is clearer than 'the farmers were advised'.
- **Keep one main idea per paragraph,** with a topic sentence first.
- **Arrange ideas logically** — in time order, cause and effect, or order of importance.
- **Use headings, sub-headings, lists and tables** to break the text and guide the eye.
- **Be concise.** Remove unnecessary words and repetition.

- **Use correct grammar, spelling and punctuation,** so that meaning is not distorted.
- **Know the reader.** Match vocabulary and detail to the education and needs of the audience.

10.4 Points to be Considered in Technical Writing

Technical writing is writing about specialised subjects for a practical purpose. It has its own conventions.

- **Accuracy:** every fact, figure and unit must be correct and verifiable.
- **Clarity:** the meaning must be unambiguous; define terms and use them consistently.
- **Conciseness:** say what is needed, and no more.
- **Objectivity:** present facts, not personal feelings; avoid emotional language.
- **Logical organisation:** use a clear structure with headings, numbered sections and sub-sections.
- **Appropriate format:** follow the expected layout — introduction, methods, results, discussion or the required report format.
- **Correct terminology:** use standard scientific and technical terms correctly.
- **Use of tables, figures and units:** present data in tables and graphs, and always give units (kg, ha, °C).
- **Audience awareness:** write for the reader — a scientist, an officer or a farmer.
- **References and acknowledgements:** cite the sources of borrowed information.

Worked Example 10.1 Rewriting a difficult sentence for farmers

Difficult version: “It is imperative that the cultivators implement the recommended agronomic interventions in a timely manner so as to optimise the yield potential.”

Improved version: “Farmers should carry out the recommended practices on time to get the best yield.”

- **Short sentences:** one idea, expressed simply.
- **Simple words:** ‘cultivators’ → ‘farmers’; ‘implement’ → ‘carry out’; ‘optimise’ → ‘get the best’.
- **Active voice:** the doer (farmers) comes first.
- **No padding:** ‘It is imperative that’ and ‘in a timely manner’ are removed.

10.5 Paragraph Writing

A paragraph is a group of sentences that develop one main idea. A well-written paragraph has three parts.

- **Topic sentence:** states the main idea, usually at the beginning.
- **Supporting sentences:** explain, illustrate or prove the main idea with facts and examples.
- **Concluding sentence:** rounds off the paragraph or links it to the next one.

Each paragraph should deal with a single idea and should be linked to the next by a suitable connecting word. In technical writing, short paragraphs of three to five sentences are easiest to read.

10.6 The Seven C’s Applied to Writing

The same seven qualities introduced for communication apply to writing: completeness, conciseness, consideration, clarity, concreteness, courtesy and correctness. A writer should check the draft against each of these before publishing it.

Key Terms

Key terms and their meanings

Term	Meaning
Recursive	Repeating earlier stages of a process; writing is recursive.
Draft	A first rough version of a piece of writing.
Technical writing	Writing about specialised subjects for a practical purpose.
Active voice	The form in which the subject performs the action.

Exam Focus — Lecture 10

Key points to remember

- Writing is a productive skill; it must be clear, correct, concise and complete.
- Graham’s stages: planning, drafting, revising, editing, publishing — and recursive.
- Types: expository, descriptive, narrative, persuasive, technical, letters and reports.
- Easy reading needs short sentences, simple words, active voice and one idea per paragraph.
- Technical writing must be accurate, clear, concise, objective and well organised.
- Always state units and cite sources in technical writing.

Short-answer questions with model answers

Q1. List the stages of Graham’s writing process.

Answer: Planning, drafting, revising, editing and publishing. The process is recursive because the writer often returns to an earlier stage before the final text is ready.

Q2. Give three points to be considered in technical writing.

Answer: (i) Accuracy — all facts, figures and units must be correct; (ii) Clarity — the meaning must be unambiguous and terms defined; (iii) Objectivity — present facts rather than personal feelings.

Q3. How can writing be made easy to read?

Answer: By using short sentences, simple familiar words, the active voice, one main idea per paragraph, logical order, headings and lists, and correct grammar and punctuation.

Long-answer questions with answer outlines

Q1. Explain the stages of the writing process with a flow chart.

Outline: Explain that writing is a process, not a single act. Describe each stage — planning, drafting, revising, editing, publishing — and the loop back from revising to drafting. Give a short example of a farm advisory passing through the stages.

Q2. Discuss the points to be considered in technical writing.

Outline: Define technical writing. Points — accuracy, clarity, conciseness, objectivity, logical organisation, appropriate format, correct terminology, use of tables and units, audience awareness, references. Conclude with why these matter in agricultural writing.

LECTURE 11

LECTURE 11

Precis Writing and Styles of Technical Communication

Learning Outcomes

- Define a precis and state the rules for making one.
- Distinguish precis, summary, abstract and synopsis.
- Describe the five styles of technical communication.
- Identify which style is most effective and why.

11.1 What is Precis Writing?

Precis

A precis (pronounced ‘pray-see’) is a concise summary of a passage, giving only the essential ideas in the writer’s own words, in one paragraph and usually in about one-third of the length of the original.

Precis writing tests the ability to read carefully, separate the essential from the unessential, and express the core of a passage in clear, connected prose. It is a skill used in preparing extension summaries, office notes and abstracts of research papers.

11.2 Rules for Making a Precis

1. **Read the passage carefully** two or three times until the central idea is clear.
2. **Identify the main points** and the theme; discard examples, illustrations, repetitions and figures that are not essential.
3. **Write in your own words** as far as possible; do not copy whole sentences.
4. **Keep it to about one-third** of the original length, in a single paragraph.
5. **Use the third person** — never ‘I’, ‘we’ or ‘you’.
6. **Use indirect speech** and avoid quotations.
7. **Do not add your own comments,** opinions, criticism or new facts.
8. **Keep the order of ideas** the same as in the original.
9. **Make it clear, concise and connected** — a single, flowing paragraph.
10. **Give a suitable title** that sums up the theme.

11.3 Guidelines for a Good Precis

- The precis must read as an independent piece of writing, not as a set of notes.
- Avoid ‘the writer says’, ‘the author tells us’ and similar expressions.
- Do not begin with ‘The passage says that…’; begin directly with the idea.
- Use linking words (therefore, however, thus) to keep the paragraph connected.
- Count the words of the original and of the precis to keep the ratio near one to three.
- Revise the precis once for clarity and once for grammar before finalising.

11.4 Abstracting and Summarising

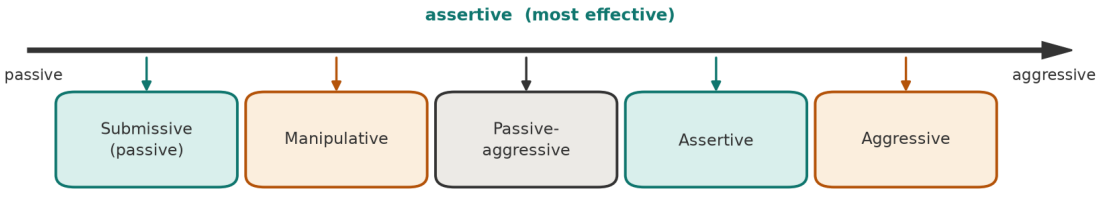
A **summary** is a brief statement of the main points of a passage or document, in the reader's own words. It may be shorter or longer than a precis and is often written in point form. An **abstract** is a short, formal summary placed at the beginning of a research paper or report; it states the purpose, methods, results and conclusion in about 100 to 250 words, so that a reader can decide whether to read the whole paper. Precis, summary and abstract are all forms of condensation; the precis is the most carefully proportioned and is written in continuous prose.

11.5 Styles of Technical Communication

People adopt different styles of communication according to their personality and situation. The five styles below are often contrasted. The assertive style is the most effective for professional and technical communication.

- **Assertive style:** expresses ideas, needs and opinions clearly, honestly and respectfully, while respecting the rights of others. Example: 'I disagree with this dose; may we check the recommendation?'
- **Aggressive style:** tries to dominate, ignores the feelings and rights of others and may use threats or insults. Example: 'Your method is useless; do it my way.'
- **Passive-aggressive style:** appears to agree but expresses hostility indirectly, through sarcasm, delays or silent resistance. Example: agreeing to a plan and then quietly not doing it.
- **Submissive (passive) style:** does not express one's own needs or opinions; yields to others even when wrong. Example: 'Whatever you say is fine with me.'
- **Manipulative style:** controls others indirectly by using guilt, flattery, half-truths or deception to get one's way. Example: persuading a colleague to take a decision by making him feel guilty.

Fig. 12 The Five Styles of Communication



Assertiveness lies in the middle: it respects both one's own rights and the rights of others.

Fig. 12 The five styles of communication — assertive lies in the middle.

Table 11.1 Styles of technical communication

Style	Behaviour	Effect on communication
Assertive	States views clearly and respectfully; respects others	Most effective; builds trust and solves problems
Aggressive	Dominates, threatens, ignores others' rights	Creates fear, resentment and resistance
Passive-aggressive	Agrees outwardly, resists indirectly (sarcasm, delay)	Breeds distrust and confusion
Submissive (passive)	Does not express own needs; always yields	Own views are lost; message is unclear
Manipulative	Controls others indirectly through guilt or flattery	Damages trust once detected; unethical

Worked Example 11.1 Writing a precis

Original passage (about 125 words)

"Soil erosion is one of the most serious problems facing Indian agriculture today. Every year, heavy rains and strong winds wash away or blow away the fertile top layer of the soil. This top layer is the most valuable part of the soil because it contains the organic matter and plant nutrients on which crops depend. When this layer is lost, the land becomes less productive, and farmers are forced to use more fertiliser to obtain the same yield. The cost of cultivation rises, while the income of the farmer falls. To control soil erosion, farmers should adopt contour bunding, grow cover crops and plant trees on the bunds. These measures hold the soil in place and preserve its fertility for future generations."

Steps applied

- **Reading:** the passage is read twice; the theme is the harm done by soil erosion and its control.
- **Main points retained:** (i) erosion removes the fertile topsoil; (ii) this reduces productivity and income; (iii) contour bunding, cover crops and tree planting control it.
- **Details discarded:** the mention of heavy rains and winds, organic matter, and 'future generations' as examples and embellishments.
- **Own words, third person, no comments, one paragraph, about one-third length, title given.**

Precis (about 42 words)

Title: Control of Soil Erosion

Soil erosion, a serious problem in Indian agriculture, removes the fertile topsoil on which crops depend. This lowers productivity, raises the cost of cultivation and reduces farm income. Contour bunding, cover crops and tree planting on bunds can control erosion and preserve soil fertility.

The original is about 125 words and the precis about 42 words, close to the one-third ratio required.

11.6 Precis, Summary, Abstract and Synopsis Compared

These four forms of condensation are often confused. The table below shows how they differ.

Table 11.2 Forms of condensation compared

Form	Length	Purpose and place
Precis	About one-third of the original	To test or show understanding of a passage; written in one paragraph
Summary	Shorter or longer as needed	To state the main points of a passage or document; often in point form
Abstract	About 100 to 250 words	Placed at the start of a research paper; states purpose, methods, results, conclusion
Synopsis	About one to two pages	A brief outline of a proposed research project or a report

Key Terms

Key terms and their meanings

Term	Meaning
Precis	A concise summary in one’s own words, about one-third of the original.
Abstract	A short formal summary at the start of a research paper.
Summary	A brief statement of the main points of a passage.
Assertive style	Expressing views clearly and respectfully, respecting others’ rights.

Exam Focus — Lecture 11

Key points to remember

- A precis is a concise summary in one's own words, about one-third of the original.
- Rules: read carefully, keep only main points, own words, third person, indirect speech, no comments, one paragraph, give a title.
- A summary states the main points; an abstract is a formal summary of a research paper.
- Five styles: assertive, aggressive, passive-aggressive, submissive, manipulative.
- The assertive style is the most effective and ethical for technical communication.

Short-answer questions with model answers

Q1. What is a precis? State any two of its rules.

Answer: A precis is a concise summary of a passage giving only the essential ideas in the writer's own words, in one paragraph and usually about one-third of the original length. Two rules: write in the third person, and do not add personal comments.

Q2. Distinguish between a summary and an abstract.

Answer: A summary is a brief statement of the main points of a passage, often in point form. An abstract is a short, formal summary placed at the start of a research paper or report, stating its purpose, methods, results and conclusion.

Q3. Why is the assertive style preferred in technical communication?

Answer: Because it expresses ideas clearly, honestly and respectfully while respecting others. It builds trust, encourages cooperation and solves problems, unlike the aggressive, submissive or manipulative styles.

Long-answer questions with answer outlines

Q1. Explain the rules for making a precis with an example.

Outline: Define precis. List the rules — careful reading, main points only, own words, one-third length, third person, indirect speech, no comments, original order, one paragraph, title. Show a short passage and its precis as an example.

Q2. Describe the five styles of technical communication and their effects.

Outline: Introduce style. Explain assertive, aggressive, passive-aggressive, submissive and manipulative styles with an example each, and state the effect of each on communication. Conclude that the assertive style is the most effective.

LECTURE 12

LECTURE 12

Writing a Resume and a Curriculum Vitae

Learning Outcomes

- State the tips for writing a good resume.
- State the tips for writing a good curriculum vitae.
- Distinguish a resume from a CV.
- Prepare a simple resume outline.

A resume and a curriculum vitae (CV) are both documents that present a person's education, experience and skills to a prospective employer. They are, however, used for different purposes and differ in length and content. A student applying for a job or an internship must know how to prepare both.

12.1 Tips for Writing a Resume

- **Keep it short.** One or two pages at most; for a fresher, one page is best.
- **Start with contact details:** name, address, telephone number and email.
- **State a clear objective or profile** in two or three lines, matched to the job.
- **List education in reverse order** — the latest qualification first.
- **Highlight relevant skills,** including computer skills, languages and technical skills.
- **Mention internships, projects, training and achievements** relevant to the job.
- **Use action words** — conducted, organised, prepared, assisted.
- **Tailor the resume to each job;** use the same key words as the advertisement.
- **Keep the layout neat** with clear headings, consistent fonts and plenty of white space.
- **Proof-read carefully** for spelling and grammar; errors create a poor impression.

12.2 Tips for Writing a Curriculum Vitae

- **Be complete and detailed.** A CV may run to several pages, especially for academic posts.
- **Begin with personal details:** name, address, date of birth, nationality, contact details.
- **Give a full academic record** — every degree, institution, year and grade.
- **List research experience, publications, papers presented and projects.**
- **Include teaching or work experience,** with dates and responsibilities.
- **List awards, scholarships, fellowships and memberships of professional bodies.**
- **Mention conferences attended, workshops and training programmes.**
- **Add a section on skills,** languages and computer proficiency.
- **Give names of referees** with their designations and contact details.
- **Keep the format consistent** and update the CV regularly.

Fig. 13 Structure of a Resume

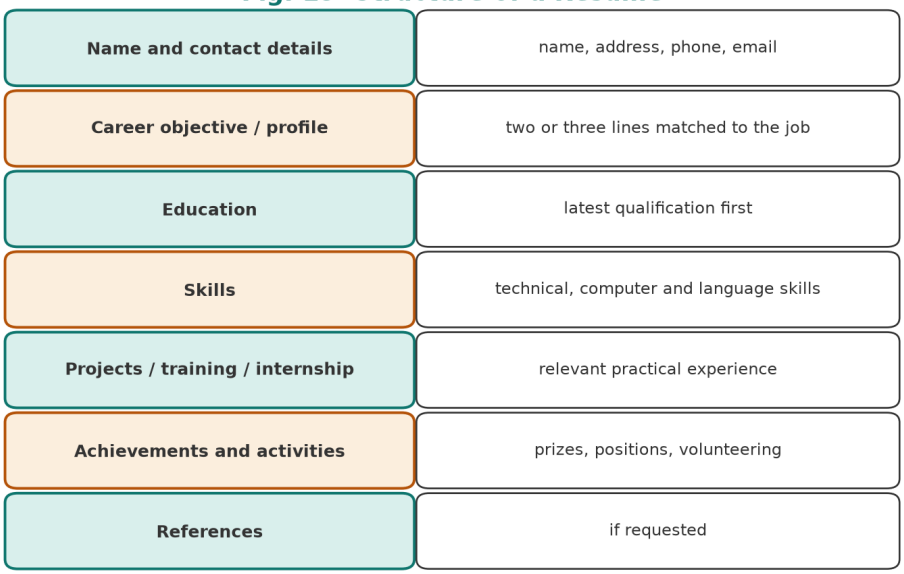


Fig. 13 The structure of a resume, section by section.

Table 12.1 Resume versus Curriculum Vitae

Basis	Resume	Curriculum Vitae (CV)
Purpose	To apply for a specific job or internship	To apply for academic, research or professional posts
Length	Usually one or two pages	Two or more pages; no fixed limit
Content	Selected, job-relevant education, skills and experience	Complete academic and professional record
Order	Skills and achievements often first; reverse chronological education	Chronological academic record; publications and research
Customisation	Tailored to each job advertisement	Generally the same for similar posts, updated over time
Focus	What the employer needs for this job	The full scholarly and professional profile
Common extras	Objective, skills, projects	Publications, conferences, referees, awards

Worked Example 12.1 Sample resume and CV outline

A. One-page resume (for a field assistant post)

Name: Anita Sharma
Address: 12, Gandhi Street, Coimbatore – 641003
Phone / Email: +91-98xxxxxx12 / anita.sharma@example.com

Objective: To work as a field assistant in agricultural extension, using my training in crop production and my communication skills to support farmers.

Education:

- B.Sc. (Hons) Agriculture, Tamil Nadu Agricultural University — 2025, CGPA 8.2/10.
- Higher Secondary (Class XII), State Board — 2021, 88%.

Skills: Crop production and protection; soil sampling; MS Office; Tamil, English and Hindi; report writing.

Training and projects: Village attachment (RAWE) at XYZ block; project on ‘Integrated Nutrient Management in Paddy’.

Achievements: Second prize in the college elocution competition, 2024; NSS volunteer.

B. Curriculum vitae outline (for a research post)

- **Personal details:** name, address, date of birth, nationality, contact.
- **Career objective / research interest.**
- **Academic qualifications:** full table — degree, institution, year, marks.
- **Research experience:** projects, dissertation title, guide.
- **Publications and papers:** journal articles, conference papers, posters.
- **Teaching / work experience:** posts held, dates, duties.
- **Awards and scholarships:** fellowships, medals, prizes.
- **Conferences and workshops attended.**
- **Skills and languages.**
- **Referees:** two or three persons with designation and contact details.

12.3 The Covering Letter

A resume or CV is normally sent with a short covering letter. The covering letter introduces the candidate, states the post applied for and draws attention to the most relevant qualifications.

- Keep it to one page and address it to the named person if possible.
- State the post applied for and where the advertisement was seen.
- Mention the two or three qualifications most relevant to the post.
- Refer to the enclosed resume or CV.
- Close politely, offering to attend an interview at short notice.
- Proof-read carefully and keep a copy for your own record.

Worked Example 12.2 A short covering letter

To
The Managing Director
Green Fields Agro Pvt. Ltd.
Coimbatore – 641 003

Subject: Application for the post of Field Assistant

Sir / Madam,

With reference to your advertisement in *The Hindu* dated 1 October 2025, I wish to apply for the post of Field Assistant. I have completed B.Sc. (Hons) Agriculture from Tamil Nadu Agricultural University with a CGPA of 8.2 out of 10. During my village attachment training I worked with farmers on integrated nutrient management and gained practical experience in crop advisory work.

My resume is enclosed for your kind consideration. I shall be glad to attend an interview at your convenience.

Yours faithfully,
Anita Sharma

Key Terms

Key terms and their meanings

Term	Meaning
Resume	A short, tailored document presenting education, skills and experience for a job.
Curriculum vitae	A complete academic and professional record.
Covering letter	A short letter sent with a resume to introduce the application.

Exam Focus — Lecture 12

Key points to remember

- A resume is short (one to two pages) and tailored to a specific job.
- A CV is a complete academic and professional record, often several pages.
- A resume stresses skills and achievements; a CV stresses the full academic record.
- Both must be neat, consistent and free from spelling and grammar errors.
- A CV includes publications, conferences and referees; a resume usually does not.
- For a fresher, a one-page resume is best.

Short-answer questions with model answers

Q1. State any three tips for writing a resume.

Answer: (i) Keep it short — one page for a fresher; (ii) tailor it to each job using the same key words as the advertisement; (iii) proof-read carefully for spelling and grammar errors.

Q2. Give two differences between a resume and a CV.

Answer: (i) Length — a resume is one or two pages, while a CV may run to several pages; (ii) Content — a resume lists selected, job-relevant details, while a CV gives the complete academic and professional record, including publications.

Q3. Why should a resume be tailored to each job?

Answer: Because employers look for the qualifications and skills mentioned in their advertisement. Tailoring the resume to those requirements makes the candidate’s suitability immediately visible.

Long-answer questions with answer outlines

Q1. Explain the tips for writing a good resume and a good CV.

Outline: Define both documents. Resume tips — length, contact details, objective, reverse-order education, skills, action words, tailoring, layout, proof-reading. CV tips — completeness, personal details, full academic record, research and publications, experience, awards, referees. Conclude with the difference in purpose.

Q2. Distinguish between a resume and a curriculum vitae, and prepare a short resume outline.

Outline: Tabulate the differences (purpose, length, content, order, customisation, focus, extras). Then present a short resume outline — name and contact, objective, education, skills, training, achievements.

LECTURE 13
LECTURE 13

Innovative Methods to Enhance Vocabulary

Learning Outcomes

- Explain the methods of enhancing vocabulary.
- Describe how reading, games, podcasts and mnemonics help.
- Explain why using a new word is important.
- Apply word-formation knowledge to learn new words.

Vocabulary is the stock of words a person knows and can use. A rich vocabulary makes reading, writing and speaking easier and more precise. In agriculture, a student must handle both everyday words and technical terms such as *agronomy*, *allelopathy* and *transpiration*. Vocabulary is not learnt once and for all; it grows through regular, varied practice. The following methods are simple and effective.

13.1 Reading Extensively

The single best way to build vocabulary is to read widely and regularly. Every new text exposes the reader to words used in real contexts, which fixes their meaning far better than a word list. A student should read newspapers, farm magazines, extension bulletins, story books and the editorial page, and note down unfamiliar words.

- Read at least one newspaper article and one page of a magazine every day.
- Keep a small notebook (‘word diary’) and record new words with a short meaning.
- Try to guess the meaning of a new word from its context before looking it up.
- Re-read a difficult passage after checking the words; understanding improves on the second pass.
- Build the habit of reading one book a month, in any subject of interest.

13.2 Playing Word Games

Word games turn vocabulary learning into an enjoyable activity, so that words are remembered without effort. They also build speed of recall.

- **Crossword puzzles** — they make the learner recall words from clues.
- **Scrabble and word-building games** — they strengthen spelling and word formation.
- **Antakshari of words (word chain)** — each word must begin with the last letter of the previous word.
- **Hangman, quizzes and ‘one-minute word’ contests** in the classroom.
- **Synonym and antonym games** — matching words with similar and opposite meanings.
- **Online word apps** that send a ‘word of the day’ with its meaning and usage.

13.3 Listening to Podcasts and Audio

Listening to podcasts, radio talks, audio books and English news improves both pronunciation and vocabulary. The ear learns the sound of a word along with its meaning, which helps correct spelling and confident speaking. Agricultural podcasts and Krishi radio programmes serve the double purpose of improving language and giving subject knowledge.

- Listen to a short podcast or news bulletin daily and note two or three new words.
- Listen once for the general sense, and again to catch the exact words.
- Repeat new words aloud to fix the pronunciation.
- Follow agricultural talk shows and note the technical words used.

13.4 Use of Mnemonics

A mnemonic is a memory aid — a trick that helps a person remember information. For vocabulary, mnemonics link a new word to something already known, through a rhyme, a picture, a story or an acronym.

- **Keyword mnemonic:** link the new word to a familiar sound — ‘allelopathy’ sounds like ‘a-lil-o-pathy’, imagine a plant harming a ‘lil’ neighbour.
- **Acronyms:** remember the order of things by their first letters.
- **Rhymes and jingles:** ‘i before e, except after c’.
- **Visualisation:** picture the meaning of the word in the mind.
- **Word roots and affixes:** learn common roots and prefixes — *agro* (field), *hydro* (water), *-logy* (study of).

13.5 Practice Using New Words

A word is truly learnt only when it is used. Passive recognition is not enough; the learner must use the new word in speech and writing until it becomes natural. This is called ‘productive’ vocabulary.

- Write one sentence with each new word on the day it is learnt.
- Use three new words in the next day’s classroom discussion or in a letter.
- Maintain a personal dictionary and revise it every week.
- Group words by topic (irrigation, soil, pests) so that related words are learnt together.
- Teach a new word to a friend; explaining fixes it in memory.

Table 13.1 Methods to enhance vocabulary

Method	How it works	Example activity
Reading extensively	Words learnt in real context stick better	Read a newspaper daily and note new words
Word games	Enjoyable repetition builds recall and spelling	Crosswords, Scrabble, word chain
Listening to podcasts	Ear and meaning learnt together; improves pronunciation	Listen to a farm podcast and note new words
Mnemonics	Links new words to known sounds, pictures or roots	Learn roots such as agro-, hydro-, -logy
Using new words	Active use turns recognition into productive vocabulary	Write a sentence with each new word

Worked Example 13.1 Learning the word ‘transpiration’

- **Encounter:** the word appears while reading a chapter on plant physiology.
- **Meaning from context:** the loss of water vapour from plant leaves.
- **Mnemonic:** ‘trans’ (across) + ‘piration’ (breathing) — water ‘breathing out’ across the leaf surface.
- **Word family:** transpire (verb), transpiration (noun).
- **Use:** write a sentence — ‘Transpiration cools the plant and pulls water up from the roots.’
- **Revision:** enter the word in the word diary under the topic ‘Plant physiology’.

13.6 Word Formation: Prefixes, Suffixes and Roots

Many agricultural and scientific words are built from a small number of roots, prefixes and suffixes. Learning these parts allows a student to work out the meaning of a new word without a dictionary.

Table 13.2 Common word parts in agricultural terms

Word part	Meaning	Example
agro-	field, soil	agronomy, agroforestry
hydro-	water	hydroponics, hydrolysis
photo-	light	photosynthesis, photoperiod
-logy	study of	agrology, pomology
-cide	killing	pesticide, herbicide
-ferous	bearing	pestiferous, coniferous
bio-	life	biology, biopesticide

A student who knows that *herbi-* means ‘plant’ and *-cide* means ‘killing’ can immediately understand that a herbicide kills unwanted plants.

Key Terms

Key terms and their meanings

Term	Meaning
Vocabulary	The stock of words a person knows and can use.
Mnemonic	A memory aid such as a rhyme, picture, acronym or word root.
Prefix	A word part added at the beginning of a word to change its meaning.
Suffix	A word part added at the end of a word to change its meaning or form.

Exam Focus — Lecture 13

Key points to remember

- Vocabulary is the stock of words a person knows and can use.
- Five methods: reading extensively, word games, listening to podcasts, mnemonics, using new words.
- Reading in context is the most effective single method.
- A mnemonic is a memory aid — rhyme, picture, acronym or word root.
- Vocabulary becomes productive only when the new words are actually used.

Short-answer questions with model answers

Q1. How does reading extensively help in building vocabulary?

Answer: Reading exposes the learner to new words used in real contexts, which fixes their meaning better than a word list. Regular reading of newspapers, magazines and books widens the stock of words and shows how they are used.

Q2. What is a mnemonic? Give one example.

Answer: A mnemonic is a memory aid that helps a person remember information, using a rhyme, picture, acronym or word root. Example: learning the roots agro- (field) and hydro- (water) helps remember many words at once.

Q3. Why is using a new word important?

Answer: Because a word is truly learnt only when it is used. Passive recognition is not enough; using the word in speech and writing turns it into productive vocabulary that comes to mind easily.

Long-answer questions with answer outlines

Q1. Explain the innovative methods to enhance vocabulary.

Outline: Define vocabulary. Explain the five methods — reading extensively, word games, listening to podcasts, mnemonics, practising the use of new words — with an example each. Conclude that a combination of methods works best.

Q2. Describe how you would build your agricultural vocabulary during the first year.

Outline: Describe a weekly routine — daily newspaper reading, a word diary, one podcast a week, two word games a week, learning word roots, and using three new words in class each week. Explain how the routine combines the five methods.

LECTURE 14

LECTURE 14

Analogy Questions and Elements of Effective Writing

Learning Outcomes

- Solve analogy questions by identifying the relationship.
- Explain sentence structure and its types.
- Identify misplaced and dangling modifiers.
- Explain connecting words and verbals.

14.1 What is an Analogy?

Analogy

An analogy is a comparison between two pairs of things that share the same relationship. An analogy question asks the reader to identify the relationship in a given pair and then apply the same relationship to a second pair.

Analogy questions test the power of reasoning and the ability to think concisely and accurately. They are common in competitive examinations and in aptitude tests for agricultural posts. The candidate must first name the relationship and then find the word that completes the second pair in the same way.

14.1.1 Common relationships in analogy questions

- **Synonym:** big : large :: small : little.
- **Antonym:** hot : cold :: wet : dry.
- **Part to whole:** leaf : tree :: petal : flower.
- **Worker to tool:** carpenter : saw :: farmer : plough.
- **Worker to product:** weaver : cloth :: farmer : crop.
- **Cause to effect:** rain : flood :: drought : famine.
- **Category to member:** cereal : wheat :: pulse : gram.
- **Function:** root : absorb :: leaf : photosynthesise.
- **Degree:** warm : hot :: cool : cold.

14.1.2 How to solve an analogy question

1. Read both pairs and identify the exact relationship in the first pair.
2. Express the relationship in a short sentence, for example ‘X is a tool used by Y’.
3. Apply the same sentence to the second pair.
4. Check that the relationship is of the same kind and direction, not merely similar words.
5. Eliminate options that fit a different relationship.

Worked Example 14.1 Analogies for farm-related content

Q1. Plough : Farmer :: Scalpel : ? (a) Nurse (b) Surgeon (c) Patient (d) Hospital

Reasoning: A plough is the tool used by a farmer; therefore the tool used by a surgeon is a scalpel. Relationship: worker to tool. **Answer: (b) Surgeon.**

Q2. Paddy : Kharif :: Wheat : ? (a) Rabi (b) Zaid (c) Summer (d) Monsoon

Reasoning: Paddy is a crop of the kharif (monsoon) season; wheat is a crop of the rabi (winter) season. Relationship: crop to season. **Answer: (a) Rabi.**

Q3. Root : Absorb :: Leaf : ? (a) Store (b) Photosynthesise (c) Support (d) Protect

Reasoning: The main function of the root is to absorb water and nutrients; the main function of the leaf is to prepare food by photosynthesis. Relationship: organ to function. **Answer: (b) Photosynthesise.**

Q4. Drought : Famine :: Heavy rain : ? (a) Harvest (b) Flood (c) Sowing (d) Irrigation

Reasoning: Drought causes famine; heavy rain causes flood. Relationship: cause to effect. **Answer: (b) Flood.**

Q5. Wheat : Cereal :: Gram : ? (a) Oilseed (b) Pulse (c) Fibre (d) Fodder

Reasoning: Wheat belongs to the category of cereals; gram belongs to the category of pulses. Relationship: member to category. **Answer: (b) Pulse.**

14.2 Elements of Effective Writing

Clear writing depends on four building blocks: sentence structure, modifiers, connecting words and verbals. Understanding these helps a student write farm-related literature that is accurate and easy to follow.

14.2.1 Sentence structure

A sentence is a group of words that expresses a complete thought and contains a subject and a predicate (verb). Sentences are of four kinds by structure:

- **Simple sentence:** one independent clause — ‘The farmer irrigated the field.’
- **Compound sentence:** two or more independent clauses joined by a conjunction — ‘The farmer irrigated the field, and the crop grew well.’
- **Complex sentence:** one independent clause with one or more dependent clauses — ‘The crop grew well because the farmer irrigated the field.’
- **Compound-complex sentence:** two independent clauses and at least one dependent clause.

14.2.2 Modifiers

A modifier is a word or group of words that describes or limits another word. Adjectives modify nouns; adverbs modify verbs, adjectives or other adverbs. A modifier must be placed close to the word it modifies. A **misplaced modifier** is in the wrong place and changes the meaning; a **dangling modifier** has no word to modify.

- **Correct:** ‘The farmer sprayed only the affected plants.’
- **Misplaced:** ‘The farmer only sprayed the affected plants.’
- **Dangling:** ‘Walking through the field, the pests were noticed.’ (Who was walking? Correct: ‘Walking through the field, the farmer noticed the pests.’)

14.2.3 Connecting words

Connecting words join words, phrases and clauses, and show the relationship between ideas. They make writing smooth and logical. Conjunctions (and, but, or, because, although) join clauses; transition words (therefore, however, moreover, for example) link sentences and paragraphs. Choosing the right connector is essential for clear reasoning.

- **Addition:** and, also, moreover, besides.
- **Contrast:** but, however, although, yet.
- **Cause and effect:** because, since, therefore, hence.
- **Example:** for example, such as, namely.
- **Sequence:** first, next, then, finally.

14.2.4 Verbals

Verbals are words formed from verbs but used as other parts of speech. There are three kinds:

- **Gerund:** a verb form ending in *-ing* used as a noun — ‘Irrigating the field takes time.’
- **Participle:** a verb form used as an adjective — ‘The ripened crop was harvested.’
- **Infinitive:** the base form of a verb with *to*, used as a noun, adjective or adverb — ‘Farmers need to test the soil.’

14.3 Punctuation for Clear Writing

Punctuation marks guide the reader and prevent ambiguity. The common marks and their uses are given below.

Table 14.1 Common punctuation marks

Mark	Use	Example
Full stop (.)	Ends a statement or an abbreviation	The crop was harvested.
Comma (,)	Separates items in a list or clauses	Sow, weed and irrigate in time.
Semicolon (;)	Joins two closely related independent clauses	The seed was treated; the crop grew well.
Colon (:)	Introduces a list or an explanation	Three steps were needed: testing, treatment and sowing.
Question mark (?)	Ends a direct question	When should the seed be sown?
Exclamation mark (!)	Shows strong feeling	What a good harvest!
Apostrophe (')	Shows possession or omission	The farmer’s field; don’t
Quotation marks (“ ”)	Encloses a speaker’s exact words	He said, “Test the soil.”

Key Terms

Key terms and their meanings

Term	Meaning
Analogy	A comparison between two pairs with the same relationship.
Modifier	A word or phrase that describes or limits another word.
Conjunction	A word that joins words, phrases or clauses.
Verbal	A verb form used as a noun, adjective or adverb.

Exam Focus — Lecture 14

Key points to remember

- An analogy compares two pairs with the same relationship.
- Common relationships: synonym, antonym, part-whole, worker-tool, cause-effect, category-member.
- First name the relationship, then apply it to the second pair.
- Sentence types by structure: simple, compound, complex, compound-complex.
- A misplaced modifier is wrongly placed; a dangling modifier has no word to modify.
- Verbals: gerund (noun), participle (adjective), infinitive (noun/adjective/adverb).

Short-answer questions with model answers

Q1. What is an analogy? Give one example.

Answer: An analogy is a comparison between two pairs of things that share the same relationship. Example: plough : farmer :: scalpel : surgeon (worker to tool).

Q2. Distinguish between a misplaced modifier and a dangling modifier.

Answer: A misplaced modifier is placed in the wrong position and alters the meaning (*the farmer only sprayed…*). A dangling modifier has no word in the sentence for it to modify (*walking through the field, the pests were noticed*).

Q3. Name the three kinds of verbals.

Answer: Gerund (verb form used as a noun), participle (verb form used as an adjective) and infinitive (base verb with *to*, used as noun, adjective or adverb).

Long-answer questions with answer outlines

Q1. Explain how analogy questions are solved, with two examples from agriculture.

Outline: Define analogy. Explain the steps — identify the relationship, state it in a sentence, apply it, check direction, eliminate wrong options. Give two worked examples from agriculture with reasoning.

Q2. Describe the elements of effective writing — sentence structure, modifiers, connecting words and verbals.

Outline: Explain sentence types by structure. Explain modifiers and the errors of misplacement and dangling. List connecting words by function. Explain the three verbals with examples. Conclude that these elements make farm-related writing clear and accurate.

LECTURE 15

LECTURE 15

Phrases, Clauses and Correct Usage

Learning Outcomes

- Distinguish a phrase from a clause.
- Explain the three cases of nouns and pronouns.
- Apply the rules for correct use of nouns, pronouns, adjectives, adverbs and articles.
- Identify and correct common errors of usage.

15.1 Phrases

Phrase

A phrase is a group of related words that does not contain both a subject and a verb, and therefore does not express a complete thought. A phrase works as a single unit within a sentence.

- **Noun phrase:** works as a noun — ‘the fertile soil of the delta’.
- **Verb phrase:** the verb with its helpers — ‘has been irrigated’.
- **Adjective phrase:** describes a noun — ‘a crop of excellent quality’.
- **Adverb phrase:** describes a verb — ‘with great care’.
- **Prepositional phrase:** begins with a preposition — ‘in the field’.
- **Gerund phrase:** begins with a gerund — ‘sowing at the right time’.
- **Infinitive phrase:** begins with an infinitive — ‘to increase the yield’.

15.2 Clauses

Clause

A clause is a group of words that contains both a subject and a verb. An independent clause expresses a complete thought and can stand alone; a dependent (subordinate) clause does not express a complete thought and cannot stand alone.

- **Independent (main) clause:** ‘The farmer irrigated the field’ — it can stand alone as a sentence.
- **Dependent noun clause:** works as a noun — ‘what the officer advised’.
- **Dependent adjective (relative) clause:** describes a noun — ‘which ripens early’.
- **Dependent adverb clause:** describes a verb — ‘because the rains failed’.

15.2.1 Use of phrases and clauses

Phrases and clauses are used to add information, detail and connection to sentences. A combination of short and long sentences, with well-placed phrases and clauses, makes writing interesting and clear. Using too many short sentences makes writing choppy; using too many long dependent clauses makes it difficult. The skilful writer mixes both.

15.3 Case

Case is the form of a noun or pronoun that shows its relation to other words in the sentence. English has three cases.

- **Subjective (nominative) case:** the noun or pronoun is the subject of the verb — ‘*She* tested the soil.’
- **Possessive (genitive) case:** the noun or pronoun shows ownership — ‘the *farmer’s* field’, ‘*her* crop’.
- **Objective (accusative) case:** the noun or pronoun is the object of a verb or preposition — ‘The officer advised *him*.’

15.4 Correct Usage of Parts of Speech

15.4.1 Nouns

A noun names a person, place, thing or idea. Nouns are of several kinds: proper (Punjab), common (farmer), collective (a herd), material (wheat) and abstract (fertility). A noun must agree in number with its verb, and collective nouns may take a singular or plural verb according to sense.

15.4.2 Pronouns and antecedents

A pronoun stands in place of a noun. The noun to which it refers is called its **antecedent**. A pronoun must agree with its antecedent in number and gender, and it must refer clearly to one antecedent.

- **Correct:** ‘The farmer bought seeds and sowed *them* in time.’
- **Wrong:** ‘The farmer bought seeds and sowed *it* in time.’
- **Unclear:** ‘When the officer met the farmer, *he* was pleased.’ (Who was pleased? Avoid ambiguous pronouns.)

15.4.3 Adjectives

An adjective describes a noun or pronoun — ‘a *high-yielding* variety’. Adjectives have three degrees: positive (tall), comparative (taller) and superlative (tallest). The comparative is used for two things and the superlative for more than two.

15.4.4 Adverbs

An adverb describes a verb, an adjective or another adverb — ‘The crop grew *rapidly*.’ Adverbs answer the questions how, when, where and to what extent. Do not confuse an adjective with an adverb: ‘The crop grew *rapid*’ is wrong; ‘grew *rapidly*’ is correct.

15.4.5 Articles

Articles are the words *a*, *an* and *the*. *A* and *an* are indefinite articles used before singular countable nouns — *a* before a consonant sound and *an* before a vowel sound (*a farmer*, *an officer*). *The* is the definite article, used for a particular thing already known (*the field we visited*).

Table 15.1 Parts of speech at a glance

Part of speech	Function	Example
Noun	Names a person, place, thing or idea	Farmer, Punjab, wheat, fertility
Pronoun	Stands in place of a noun	He, she, it, they, them
Adjective	Describes a noun or pronoun	Fertile soil, high-yielding variety
Verb	Shows action or state of being	Sow, irrigate, is, grows
Adverb	Describes a verb, adjective or adverb	Grew rapidly, very fertile
Preposition	Shows relation of a noun to another word	In the field, on the bund
Conjunction	Joins words, phrases or clauses	And, but, because, although
Interjection	Expresses sudden feeling	Ah! Oh! Well done!

Worked Example 15.1 Using case, pronouns and articles correctly

1. Case. Wrong: ‘Him tested the soil.’ → Correct: ‘He tested the soil.’ (subjective case needed as subject).

2. Possessive. Wrong: ‘The farmers crop failed.’ → Correct: ‘The farmer’s crop failed.’ (apostrophe shows possession).

3. Objective. Wrong: ‘The officer advised she.’ → Correct: ‘The officer advised her.’ (objective case after a verb).

4. Pronoun-antecedent. Wrong: ‘Each farmer must bring their tools.’ → Correct: ‘Each farmer must bring his tools.’ (singular antecedent takes a singular pronoun).

5. Article. Wrong: ‘He is an farmer.’ → Correct: ‘He is a farmer.’ (‘a’ before a consonant sound).

6. Adjective or adverb. Wrong: ‘The crop grew rapid.’ → Correct: ‘The crop grew rapidly.’ (adverb modifies the verb).

15.5 Common Errors in the Use of Prepositions and Conjunctions

Prepositions and conjunctions are small words, but wrong choice spoils the meaning of a sentence. The table below lists some common errors.

Table 15.2 Common errors of usage with corrections

Wrong	Correct	Rule
Discuss about the plan	Discuss the plan	‘Discuss’ takes a direct object
Different than	Different from	Use ‘from’ after ‘different’
Comprises of five items	Comprises five items	‘Comprise’ needs no ‘of’
Not only… but also	Not only… but also	Keep the two parts parallel
Because… so	Because…	Do not use ‘so’ with ‘because’
Superior than	Superior to	Use ‘to’ after ‘superior’

Key Terms

Key terms and their meanings

Term	Meaning
Phrase	A group of words without a subject-verb pair.
Clause	A group of words containing a subject and a verb.
Case	The form of a noun or pronoun showing its relation to other words.
Antecedent	The noun to which a pronoun refers.

Exam Focus — Lecture 15

Key points to remember

- A phrase has no subject-verb pair and no complete thought; a clause has both.
- Independent clauses can stand alone; dependent clauses cannot.
- Three cases: subjective, possessive and objective.
- A pronoun must agree with its antecedent in number and gender and refer clearly.
- Adjectives describe nouns; adverbs describe verbs, adjectives or adverbs.
- Use ‘a’ before a consonant sound and ‘an’ before a vowel sound.

Short-answer questions with model answers

Q1. Distinguish between a phrase and a clause.

Answer: A phrase is a group of related words without a subject-verb pair, so it does not express a complete thought. A clause contains both a subject and a verb; an independent clause expresses a complete thought, while a dependent clause does not.

Q2. Name the three cases with an example each.

Answer: Subjective — ‘*She* tested the soil’; possessive — ‘the *farmer’s* field’; objective — ‘The officer advised *him*.’

Q3. What is an antecedent?

Answer: An antecedent is the noun to which a pronoun refers. A pronoun must agree with its antecedent in number and gender, for example ‘The farmer bought seeds and sowed *them*.’

Long-answer questions with answer outlines

Q1. Explain phrases and clauses, and their use in writing.

Outline: Define phrase and clause. Give the types of each with examples. Explain how a mixture of phrases, clauses and sentence lengths makes writing clear and interesting. Give one or two corrected examples.

Q2. Describe the correct usage of nouns, pronouns, adjectives, adverbs and articles.

Outline: Explain each part of speech briefly with examples. Emphasise agreement of pronoun with antecedent, the difference between adjectives and adverbs, and the rules for ‘a’, ‘an’ and ‘the’. Give a corrected example for each.

LECTURE 16

LECTURE 16

Agreement of Verb with Subject and Effective Sentences

Learning Outcomes

- Apply the rule of subject-verb agreement.
- Explain tense, mood and voice in communication.
- Write effective sentences.
- Identify and correct the basic sentence faults.

16.1 Agreement of Verb with Subject

A verb must agree with its subject in number and person. This is called **subject-verb agreement** or concord. A singular subject takes a singular verb; a plural subject takes a plural verb. Mistakes of agreement are among the most common faults in student writing and can confuse a farmer reader.

- **Singular subject, singular verb:** 'The farmer *grows* paddy.'
- **Plural subject, plural verb:** 'The farmers *grow* paddy.'
- **Two subjects joined by *and*:** 'The farmer and his son *are* in the field.'
- **Subjects joined by *or* or *nor*:** the verb agrees with the nearer subject — 'Neither the farmer nor his sons *were* present.'
- **Collective noun:** takes a singular verb when acting as one unit — 'The committee *has* decided.'
- **Each, every, either, neither, everyone:** take a singular verb — 'Every farmer *needs* water.'
- **Uncountable nouns:** take a singular verb — 'The information *is* correct.'

16.2 Tense

Tense shows the time of an action — present, past or future. Each tense has four forms: simple, continuous, perfect and perfect continuous. A writer must keep the tense consistent within a passage; unnecessary shifting from one tense to another confuses the reader.

- **Present tense:** 'The crop *grows* well in this soil.'
- **Past tense:** 'The crop *grew* well last year.'
- **Future tense:** 'The crop *will grow* well if it rains.'
- **Faulty tense shift:** 'The farmer sows the seed and *watered* the field' → 'The farmer sows the seed and *waters* the field.'

16.3 Mood

Mood shows the manner in which an action is expressed. English has three moods.

- **Indicative mood:** states a fact or asks a question — 'The soil is fertile.'
- **Imperative mood:** gives a command or request — 'Test the soil before sowing.'
- **Subjunctive mood:** expresses a wish, a doubt or a condition contrary to fact — 'If I *were* the officer, I would advise crop rotation.'

16.4 Voice

Voice shows whether the subject acts or is acted upon. In the **active voice** the subject does the action; in the **passive voice** the subject receives the action. The active voice is shorter, clearer and more direct, and is preferred in writing for farmers.

- **Active:** ‘The officer advised the farmers.’
- **Passive:** ‘The farmers were advised by the officer.’
- **Rule:** prefer the active voice; use the passive only when the doer is unknown or unimportant.

Fig. 14 Tense, Mood and Voice at a Glance

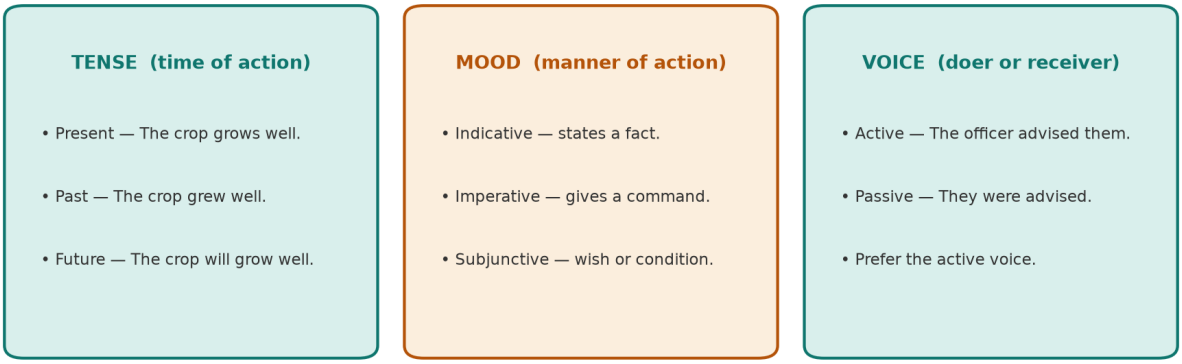


Fig. 14 Tense, mood and voice summarised with examples.

16.5 Writing Effective Sentences

- Express one main idea in each sentence.
- Keep sentences short and simple; break a long sentence into two.
- Use the active voice and strong verbs.
- Place modifiers next to the words they modify.
- Keep the tense consistent.
- Use parallel structure for items in a list.
- Avoid unnecessary words and repetition.
- Punctuate correctly, especially commas and full stops.

16.6 Basic Sentence Faults to be Avoided while Writing for Farmers

Writing meant for farmers must be especially clear. The following faults should be avoided.

- **Sentence fragment:** an incomplete sentence. Fault: ‘Because the rains failed.’ Correct: ‘The crop failed because the rains did not come.’
- **Run-on sentence (comma splice):** two sentences joined only by a comma. Fault: ‘The seed was treated, it grew well.’ Correct: ‘The seed was treated, and it grew well.’
- **Faulty subject-verb agreement:** Fault: ‘The farmers grows paddy.’ Correct: ‘The farmers grow paddy.’

- **Misplaced modifier:** Fault: ‘The officer only advised the farmers.’ Correct: ‘The officer advised only the farmers.’
- **Dangling modifier:** Fault: ‘After sowing the seed, the rain fell.’ Correct: ‘After the farmer sowed the seed, the rain fell.’
- **Faulty parallelism:** Fault: ‘The package includes sowing, weeding and to harvest.’ Correct: ‘The package includes sowing, weeding and harvesting.’
- **Double negative:** Fault: ‘He did not use no fertiliser.’ Correct: ‘He did not use any fertiliser.’
- **Redundancy:** Fault: ‘Repeat again’, ‘free gift’. Correct: ‘Repeat’, ‘gift’.
- **Wrong tense shift:** Fault: ‘The farmer sows the seed and watered it.’ Correct: ‘The farmer sowed the seed and watered it.’

Table 16.1 Common sentence faults with corrections

Fault	Faulty sentence	Corrected sentence
Sentence fragment	Because the rains failed.	The crop failed because the rains did not come.
Run-on / comma splice	The seed was treated, it grew well.	The seed was treated, and it grew well.
Subject-verb agreement	The farmers grows paddy.	The farmers grow paddy.
Misplaced modifier	The officer only advised the farmers.	The officer advised only the farmers.
Dangling modifier	After sowing the seed, the rain fell.	After the farmer sowed the seed, the rain fell.
Faulty parallelism	Sowing, weeding and to harvest.	Sowing, weeding and harvesting.
Double negative	He did not use no fertiliser.	He did not use any fertiliser.
Redundancy	Repeat again the dose.	Repeat the dose.
Wrong tense shift	He sows the seed and watered it.	He sowed the seed and watered it.

Worked Example 16.1 Correcting faulty sentences

1. Fault: ‘The farmer have tested the soil.’ → Correct: ‘The farmer has tested the soil.’ (singular subject, singular verb).

2. Fault: ‘The crop was affected by the pests, it died.’ → Correct: ‘The crop was affected by the pests, and it died.’ (comma splice corrected).

3. Fault: ‘Applying the fertiliser, the yield increased.’ → Correct: ‘When the farmer applied the fertiliser, the yield increased.’ (dangling modifier corrected).

4. Fault: ‘The advisory lists seed treatment, sowing time and how to control weeds.’ → Correct: ‘The advisory lists seed treatment, sowing time and weed control.’ (parallel structure).

5. Fault: ‘Irrigate the field daily and the crop was healthy.’ → Correct: ‘Irrigate the field daily and keep the crop healthy.’ (parallel mood and tense).

6. Fault: ‘Neither the officer nor the farmers was informed.’ → Correct: ‘Neither the officer nor the farmers were informed.’ (verb agrees with the nearer subject).

16.7 Writing a Farm Advisory Letter: A Model

Extension officers often write short advisory letters to farmers. The letter below shows how clear, simple language and correct grammar are used in practice.

Worked Example 16.2 A farm advisory letter

To
Sri R. Murugan
Kallipalayam Village
Namakkal District

Subject: Advisory on the control of stem borer in paddy

Dear Sri Murugan,

Thank you for your letter dated 5 October 2025 about the damage to your paddy crop. From the sample you sent, the problem appears to be stem borer.

Please follow these steps. First, remove and destroy the affected tillers. Second, avoid excess nitrogen, because it makes the plants more attractive to the pest. Third, spray the recommended insecticide at the dose given in the enclosed leaflet, in the evening, when there is no wind.

Please let me know the result after one week. If the damage continues, I shall visit your field with the block officer.

Yours sincerely,
The Agricultural Officer

Note the features of this letter: a clear subject line, short sentences, simple words, the active voice, a numbered sequence of steps, correct subject-verb agreement, and a polite, helpful tone.

Key Terms

Key terms and their meanings

Term	Meaning
Subject-verb agreement	The rule that a verb must agree with its subject in number and person.
Tense	The form of a verb showing the time of the action.
Mood	The manner in which an action is expressed.
Voice	The form of a verb showing whether the subject acts or is acted upon.

Exam Focus — Lecture 16

Key points to remember

- A verb must agree with its subject in number and person.
- Subjects joined by *and* take a plural verb; by *or*/*nor*, the nearer subject decides.
- Tense shows time; keep the tense consistent within a passage.
- Three moods: indicative, imperative and subjunctive.
- Prefer the active voice for clarity when writing for farmers.
- Common faults: fragment, run-on, faulty agreement, misplaced or dangling modifier, faulty parallelism, double negative, redundancy, tense shift.

Short-answer questions with model answers

Q1. State the rule of subject-verb agreement with two examples.

Answer: A verb must agree with its subject in number and person. A singular subject takes a singular verb (‘The farmer *grows* paddy’) and a plural subject takes a plural verb (‘The farmers *grow* paddy’).

Q2. What is a comma splice? Correct one example.

Answer: A comma splice is a run-on sentence in which two independent clauses are joined only by a comma. Example: ‘The seed was treated, it grew well’ → ‘The seed was treated, and it grew well.’

Q3. Why is the active voice preferred in writing for farmers?

Answer: Because it is shorter, clearer and more direct, and it names the doer of the action, which makes the instruction easier for the farmer to follow.

Long-answer questions with answer outlines

Q1. Explain the agreement of the verb with the subject, with examples.

Outline: State the rule. Explain singular and plural agreement, subjects joined by and, or and nor, collective nouns, and words such as each, every and neither. Give a corrected example for each case.

Q2. Describe the basic sentence faults to be avoided while writing for farmers, with corrections.

Outline: Explain each fault — fragment, run-on or comma splice, faulty agreement, misplaced modifier, dangling modifier, faulty parallelism, double negative, redundancy and wrong tense shift — with one faulty and one corrected example each. Conclude that clear, simple sentences are essential when writing for farmers.

GLOSSARY

Glossary of Key Terms

The following one-line definitions cover the technical terms used in this booklet. They are useful for quick revision before the examination.

Term	Meaning
Abstract	A short, formal summary of a research paper or report, stating its purpose, methods, results and conclusion.
Active listening	Listening with full involvement, asking questions and giving feedback.
Active voice	The form of a verb in which the subject performs the action.
Adverb	A word that describes a verb, an adjective or another adverb.
Analogy	A comparison between two pairs of things that share the same relationship.
Antecedent	The noun to which a pronoun refers.
Article	The words *a*, *an* (indefinite) and *the* (definite) placed before nouns.
Assertiveness	Expressing one's thoughts and needs honestly and respectfully, without aggression or passivity.
Barrier	Any obstacle that obstructs or distorts the flow of a message from sender to receiver.
Channel	The medium through which a message travels, such as speech, print, radio or the internet.
Chronemics	The study of how time is used and interpreted in communication.
Clause	A group of words containing both a subject and a verb.
Communication	The process of exchanging information, ideas and feelings through a common system of symbols so that meaning is shared.
Communication gap	The difference between what the sender intended to convey and what the receiver understood.
Comprehension	The act of understanding what is read or heard.
Decoding	The receiver's act of interpreting symbols and giving them meaning.
Empathy	The ability to understand another person's feelings and point of view.
Encoding	The sender's act of converting an idea into words, symbols or gestures.
Feedback	The receiver's response that returns to the sender and shows whether the message was understood.
Fidelity	The degree of accuracy with which a message is transferred from sender to receiver.
Gatekeeper	A person, such as an editor, who selects and shapes the messages that reach an audience.
Gerund	A verb form ending in *-ing* used as a noun.
Haptics	Communication through touch.
Hearing	The physical, involuntary reception of sound by the ear.
Heterophily	The degree of difference between two communicating persons.
Homophily	The degree of similarity between two communicating persons.

Term	Meaning
Infinitive	The base form of a verb with *to*, used as a noun, adjective or adverb.
Listening	The conscious, active process of receiving, attending to, interpreting and responding to messages.
Miscommunication	Failure to communicate clearly, so that the receiver understands the message differently from the sender’s intention.
Mnemonic	A memory aid such as a rhyme, picture, acronym or word root.
Modifier	A word or group of words that describes or limits another word.
Noise	Any factor that interferes with or distorts a message and reduces its fidelity.
Oculesics	Communication through eye contact and gaze.
Paralanguage	The non-verbal features of the voice — tone, pitch, volume, rate and pauses.
Participle	A verb form used as an adjective.
Persuasion	Influencing attitudes or behaviour through reasoning and appeal, so that change is voluntary.
Phrase	A group of related words without a subject-verb pair, not expressing a complete thought.
Precis	A concise summary of a passage in one’s own words, usually about one-third of the original length.
Propaganda	A deliberate, one-sided and organised effort to influence the beliefs and actions of many people.
Proxemics	The study of how people use and interpret space in communication.
Publicity	Attracting public attention to a person, product or idea through the mass media, without paying for the message.
Readability index	A numerical measure of how easy a piece of writing is to read, based on sentence and word length.
Scanning	Reading quickly to find a specific piece of information.
Self-esteem	The overall opinion a person holds about his or her own worth.
Skimming	Reading quickly to get the general idea or gist of a text.
Subject-verb agreement	The rule that a verb must agree with its subject in number and person.
Tense	The form of a verb that shows the time of an action.
Verbal	A word formed from a verb but used as a noun, adjective or adverb (gerund, participle, infinitive).
Voice (grammar)	The form of a verb showing whether the subject acts (active) or is acted upon (passive).

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